History and Geography Manual

Grades 5 to 9

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Chapter 1

History and Geography Manual: 5th to 9th Grade

1.1 Organisation

This manual reorganises the contents of History and Geography of Portugal (HGP, 5th–6th grade) and History (7th–9th grade) into a chronological structure by centuries. Instead of separating topics by school year, each chapter covers a historical period, allowing pupils to understand the evolution of Portugal and the world in a continuous and integrated way. Part II (Geography) maintains the usual curricular organisation.

1.2 TIMELINE — General Overview

Period	Dates	Key Events
Pre-History	up to 8th century BC	First human communities on the Iberian Peninsula; hunter-gatherer, agro-pastoral communities and hillforts
Antiquity	8th century BC – 5th century AD	Mediterranean civilisations (Egyptians, Phoenicians, Greeks); Roman conquest of the IP; Romanisation; origin of Christianity; fall of the Roman Empire
Early Middle Ages	5th–12th century	Barbarian peoples and Christianisation; Muslim expansion and Reconquest; feudalism; formation of the Kingdom of Portugal

Period	Dates	Key Events
13th–14th century	1200–1399	Medieval Portugal; daily life; Romanesque and Gothic culture; 14th-century crises; Revolution of 1383–85
15th–16th century	1400–1599	Portuguese Discoveries; Portuguese Empire; Renaissance; Reformation and Counter-Reformation
17th century	1600–1699	Iberian Union and Restoration; Ancien Régime; Baroque art
18th century	1700–1799	Brazilian gold; King João V; Enlightenment; Pombaline Lisbon; French Revolution; American Independence
19th century	1800–1899	French invasions; liberal revolution; independence of Brazil; Regeneration and Fontismo; Industrial Revolution; imperialism
20th century	1900–1999	First Republic; world wars; dictatorships; Estado Novo; Colonial War; 25 April; democracy; Cold War; EU
21st century	2000–	Portugal in the EU, CPLP and UN; globalisation; emerging powers

Chapter 2

PART I — HISTORY

2.0.1 The Iberian Peninsula — Geographical Context

2.0.1.1 The Iberian Peninsula – Location

2.0.1.2 The Iberian Peninsula in Europe and the World

2.0.1.3 Boundaries of the Iberian Peninsula

Like any peninsula, the Iberian Peninsula is surrounded by sea except on one side called the isthmus. Its natural boundaries are:

- to the north: the Atlantic Ocean;
- to the south: the Atlantic Ocean and the Mediterranean Sea;
- to the east: the Mediterranean Sea;
- to the west: the Atlantic Ocean.

2.0.1.4 Position of the Iberian Peninsula

The Iberian Peninsula is located at the south-western tip of Europe. It is separated from the African continent by the Strait of Gibraltar. It lies in the Northern Hemisphere, equidistant from the Equator and the North Pole.

2.0.1.5 Natural Features of the Iberian Peninsula

Relief The different forms that the Earth's surface presents are called relief. Some examples are:

- Plain: a large, flat, low-altitude surface;
- Plateau: a large, flat or undulating surface of medium or high altitude;
- Mountain: an elevation of land that stands out from the surrounding terrain by its altitude;
- Valley: the space between two hills (generally where a river flows).

- Mountain range: a group of mountains. Through relief maps (hypsometric maps) we can identify the different altitudes a zone may present through their colours:
- green: low-altitude plains;
- yellow: undulating plains and low-altitude plateaus;
- light brown: high-altitude plateaus and some ranges;
- dark brown: high mountains (the darker the brown, the greater the altitude). The Iberian Peninsula is a quite mountainous region made up of a set of plateaus and mountains that slope towards the west. The main features are:
- the Central Range: a mountain chain that cuts the Central Plateau in half;
- the Pyrenees: high, steep mountains;
- the Central Plateau: the largest and highest of the peninsular plateaus;
- the Ebro Plain;
- the Guadalquivir Plain;
- the Tagus-Sado Plain. Peninsular rivers The rivers of the Iberian Peninsula rise in the great mountain chains where springs and snowfields are plentiful. Since the landscape slopes westward, the rivers flow in that direction and drain into the Atlantic Ocean, with the exception of the Ebro, which flows towards the Mediterranean. Main rivers of the Iberian Peninsula:
- River Minho;
- River Douro;
- River Tagus: the longest river;
- River Guadiana;
- River Sado;
- River Guadalquivir;
- River Ebro. Climate Planet Earth has different climatic zones:
- hot zone: close to the Equator;
- cold zones: around the poles;
- temperate zones: between the cold and hot zones. The Iberian Peninsula has a temperate climate; it therefore has four seasons:
- Spring;
- Summer;
- Autumn;

- Winter. There are also regional differences, with three distinct zones:
- North and North-West: high humidity and rainfall, mild temperatures in both Winter and Summer;
- Interior: little rainfall, very cold winters and very hot summers;
- South: little rainfall, mild winters and hot summers. These differences are due to the following factors:
- proximity to the sea;
- prevailing winds;
- relief. Natural vegetation Regarding the type of vegetation on the Iberian Peninsula, two zones can be distinguished:
- Humid Iberia: deciduous forests, green natural meadows and scrubland with ferns, gorse, heather and gorse. Pines predominate along the coast;
- Dry Iberia: evergreen forests, scrubland and shrubs. Palms, agaves and cacti predominate along the coast.

2.1 Chapter 1: Pre-History and Antiquity (up to the 5th century)

This chapter covers the longest period of human history on the Iberian Peninsula: from the first communities of hunter-gatherers of the Palaeolithic to the fall of the Western Roman Empire in 476 AD. We follow the process of hominisation, the rise of the first civilisations along great rivers, the flourishing of classical Greece, the conquest and Romanisation of the Iberian Peninsula, and the origin and spread of Christianity. This period lays the cultural, linguistic and religious foundations that would shape all subsequent history of Portugal and Europe.

2.1.1 From Gatherer Societies to the First Producer Societies

1. From gatherer societies to the first producer societies 1.1 The process of hominisation Who are hominins

- **Hominins (or hominids)**
- the group that includes modern Man and his ancestors

The origin of Humanity Hominins appeared in Africa around 8 to 7 million years ago, in the Cenozoic era. Evolution of Man

- **Hominisation**
- the long process of physical and intellectual evolution of Man

- **Main changes**
- bipedalism → upright posture
- freeing of the hands → the body gradually lost hair
- reduction in jaw size → increase in skull and brain size
- increase in intelligence
- development of language

Specific characteristics of some hominin species

- **Australopithecus**
- lived in Africa → the first primate resembling Man
- moved mainly on two legs (biped), though sometimes using its hands for support
- **Homo habilis**
- moved only on its feet → the first to make tools: flaked stone pebble tools, worked only on one face
- **Homo ergaster/erectus**
- reached Asia and Europe → made more refined tools: bifaces (used for hunting, preparing game, defence, etc.)
- the first to produce fire → developed articulate language
- **Homo sapiens**
- made more refined tools in stone, bone, antler and ivory: spear tips, bows, arrows, harpoons, hooks, needles and blades
- the first to bury the dead
- **Homo sapiens sapiens**
- the first to develop artistic expressions
- reached America and Oceania

The importance of the discovery of fire

- **The mastery of fire allowed Man to**
- keep warm → defend against fierce animals → illuminate caves → cook food

Gathering around the fire also contributed to the development of language. How we know the past

- **Archaeology**
- the science that studies past cultures and ways of life from material or immaterial remains
- **Historical sources**
- documents or material or immaterial remains produced by human beings over time, essential for the historian to study the past
- **Periodisation**
- the division of human history into chronological periods with common characteristics

1.2 Gatherer societies The Palaeolithic

- **Palaeolithic**
- the period of Pre-History in which the first hominins appeared (Old Stone Age)

Gatherer life and nomadism During the Palaeolithic, Man lived by collecting what Nature provided: gathering fruits, roots, eggs, honey, fishing and hunting. Since he did not know how to cultivate, the food available in a given place would run out. He was therefore obliged to move constantly in search of food. He was, thus, nomadic. Expansion of inhabited areas Our ancestors appeared in Africa and spread to all continents.

- **Reasons for the expansion of inhabited areas**
- → they were constantly on the move → population growth occurred due to improved nutrition

Rituals

- **Magic rituals**
- to control Nature, Homo Sapiens resorted to magic rituals such as dances, chants, gestures and animal sacrifices
- **Funerary rituals**
- Homo Sapiens was the first to bury its dead. → the body was painted and placed in a foetal position together with food and personal objects. → this suggests a belief in life after death

Palaeolithic art

- **Mobile art**
- small statuettes of female figures in stone and bone (Venus figures)
- intended for fertility worship
- **Rock art (or parietal art)**
- paintings and engravings on rocks in the open air and on the ceilings and walls of caves → they represented animals, geometric figures, hands and sometimes human figures → many of these paintings served as rituals to facilitate hunting, record-keeping and decoration

1.3 The first producer societies The Neolithic

- **Neolithic:**
- the last period of Pre-History when Man began to produce his own food and to use polished stone tools (New Stone Age)

New activities, tools and techniques

- **New activities:**
- agriculture and stock-raising
- **New tools:**
- sickle, knife, plough, hoe
- **New techniques:**
- basket-weaving, pottery, milling, weaving

Producing economy and sedentarisation By producing his own food, Man was no longer dependent on what Nature gave him. He stopped being a gatherer and became a producer. Since he needed

to stay close to his lands and flocks, he began to live permanently in the same place. He stopped being nomadic and became sedentary. Where sedentarisation began The producing economy and sedentarisation took place in the region called the Fertile Crescent, between Egypt and Mesopotamia. First settlements To shelter himself, Neolithic Man built houses of stone, wood, clay and thatched roofs, clustered together for better protection, giving rise to the first villages. Some were protected by ditches and walls. Division of labour and social differentiation Through improved nutrition, the population grew. Production increased and the division of labour became evident; that is, the population began to have more specific functions: there were farmers, herders, craftsmen, priests, etc. Social differentiation based on wealth and power also emerged. Agrarian worship Neolithic Man began to worship the forces of Nature (sun, earth, water and wind), since they were linked to agriculture. Woman was associated with the earth, since both enabled the continuity of life, and was venerated with female statuettes called the mother-goddess, the main deity of this period. Megalithic monuments

- **Menhirs**
- stones planted vertically in the soil → used for Nature worship
- **Alignments**
- rows of menhirs → used for Nature worship
- **Cromlechs**
- circles of menhirs → a place of worship and gathering
- **Dolmens (or antas)**
- upright stones covered with a horizontal slab → used as tombs

2.1.2 Contributions of the First Civilisations

2. Contributions of the first civilisations 2.1 The river civilisations Definition of civilisation

- **Civilisation**
- an organised society with its own ways of life, religious beliefs and artistic creations

How the first civilisations arose From the 5th millennium BC, some communities moved to settle near great rivers because of their annual flood cycles, which made the soil on their banks fertile. The land was cleared, marshes were drained, dykes were built to hold the waters during flood months and canals were constructed to irrigate the fields during dry months. Large harvests (mainly of cereals) enabled the accumulation of surpluses, which in turn led to new activities such as crafts, trade and administrative, military and religious services. These activities tended to concentrate in large population centres – cities. The first civilisations arose with the emergence of cities.

- **First civilisations**
- Egypt → along the River Nile
- Mesopotamia → along the Rivers Tigris and Euphrates
- Indus Valley Civilisation → along the River Indus
- Ancient China → along the Yellow River

2.2 Egypt Location and natural conditions Egypt is located in north-eastern Africa, surrounded

by deserts, and is crossed by a great river: the Nile, which flows into the Mediterranean Sea. Importance of the River Nile for the development of Egyptian civilisation

- **Importance of the River Nile**
- thanks to its annual floods, its banks were highly fertile (favourable for agriculture) → rich in fish, with game animals on its banks
- provided water for animals and people to drink
- served as a communication route

Economic activities

- **Main economic activities**
- agriculture → crafts
- trade

Power of the pharaoh

- **Pharaoh**
- had sacred power (considered a living god) → had absolute power (concentrating all powers in himself)
- supreme priest
- supreme judge
- military commander
- administrator of Egypt

Society Egyptian society was stratified and hierarchical, meaning it was divided into several social strata, each with its own social importance.

- **Privileged groups**
- high officials
- nobles
- priests
- scribes
- soldiers
- **Non-privileged groups**
- craftsmen
- peasants
- servants

Scribes

- **Functions of scribes**
- held various positions such as magistrates, tax collectors and accountants, thanks to their knowledge of writing and calculation

Religion The Egyptian people were polytheistic, meaning they believed in many gods. Egyptian gods took various forms: they could be human, animal or mixed. They represented forces of nature

or human qualities. Worship of these gods took place in large, rich temples.

- **Main gods**
- Amon-Re → sun god
- Osiris → god of the dead
- Anubis → god of embalming
- Horus → god of the Sky
- Thoth → god of wisdom
- Isis → goddess of health, marriage and motherhood → Hathor → goddess of fertility
- Ma'at → goddess of justice
- Seth → god of chaos, droughts and wars

Death cult The Egyptians believed in life after death and in reincarnation. Therefore, the bodies of the dead were mummified in order to preserve them for the afterlife. After being embalmed, the bodies were placed in sarcophagi, which were then placed in tombs along with food, ornaments, jewels and other personal objects. Since this process was costly, it was only performed for pharaohs and some privileged individuals. Art

- **Architecture**
- pyramids → enormous tombs reserved for pharaohs → mastabas → tombs reserved for the pharaoh's family and the privileged → hypogea → tombs carved in rock to prevent theft of the objects left inside
- grand temples to glorify the gods to whom they paid homage
- **Sculpture and painting**
- intended mainly for the decoration of temples and tombs → the human figure was represented according to the law of frontality (head and feet in profile, torso facing forward) → the size of figures corresponded to their social rank

Writing The Egyptians invented a writing system based on hundreds of symbols called hieroglyphs. Hieroglyphic writing was learned by scribes in special schools; they were the only members of society who could read and write. Other contributions of Egyptian civilisation - Geometry - Arithmetic - Medicine - Astronomy 2.3 Civilisational contributions of the Eastern Mediterranean The monotheistic religion of the Hebrews The originality of the Hebrews lay in their religion, as they believed in a single god (Yahweh), making them a monotheistic people. Having been subjected to much persecution throughout the ages, they awaited the coming of a Messiah, the Saviour. The Bible, consisting of the Old and New Testaments, is the holy book of this people. The alphabetic writing of the Phoenicians The Phoenicians, as merchants, needed a quick and simple writing system to facilitate their trade. They therefore created a new writing system – the alphabet. This new writing system was made up of 22 very simple signs, each representing a single sound.

2.1.3 The First Human Communities of the Iberian Peninsula

2.2 THE FIRST HUMAN COMMUNITIES OF THE IBERIAN PENINSULA

2.3 NATURAL RESOURCES AND HUMAN OCCUPATION

The first gatherer communities The first groups of men and women who inhabited the Iberian Peninsula lived in communities: groups of twenty to forty people who shared shelters, food, tools and dangers. To protect themselves from the cold and fierce animals they took refuge in caves and other rock shelters. Sometimes they built huts from trunks, branches and animal skins. Animal skins also served as clothing. They also made tools of stone and bone for protection, hunting, butchering animals and scraping and cutting their hides. Hunting scenes were engraved and painted on the walls of the caves where they lived. These engravings and paintings are called rock art. These communities lived by fishing, hunting and gathering, so we call them gatherer communities. This means they lived by collecting what Nature offered them. When the natural resources of a place ran out they had to find a new location with more food and animals to survive. They therefore had no fixed home and did not stay in the same place for long. They were thus nomadic. The discovery of fire allowed them to better defend themselves from fierce animals, to keep warm and to roast animals. The agro-pastoral communities About 10,000 years ago temperatures rose, the ice melted and the climate became warm and dry. Cold-weather animals disappeared and new plant and animal species appeared. Conditions were thus created for people to leave the caves and improve their way of life. Agro-pastoral communities lived by farming, herding and domesticating animals. Since they lived near the land they cultivated, they no longer needed to move constantly, and thus became sedentary. Greater food abundance and diversity emerged, giving rise to the first settlements. Basket-weaving, pottery and weaving began to be practised. New tools were invented such as the sickle, the stone hoe, the wooden plough and the hand mill, and greater use was made of the wheel. Also in this period, megalithic stone monuments appeared, such as dolmens (antas) and menhirs. Hillfort dwellers About 2,500 years ago the Iberian Peninsula was inhabited by:

- Celts: warrior peoples from Central Europe, who were tall with fair hair and eyes and settled in the North and West of the Iberian Peninsula.
- Iberians: dark-complexioned people of medium height who settled in the South and East of the Iberian Peninsula. The Iberians only knew copper and bronze. The Celts brought gold and iron. Over time, these peoples mixed, giving rise to the Celtiberians. These tribes lived on hilltops surrounded by walls in citânias, or hillforts. Contact with Mediterranean peoples The peoples of the south of the Iberian Peninsula lived better than those of the north, mainly due to contact with the Phoenicians, Greeks and Carthaginians, who were more advanced peoples. These peoples were dedicated to trade. On the Iberian Peninsula they found metals and in return offered glass objects, ornaments, ceramics, linen and purple cloth. They brought new ideas and customs and introduced the Phoenician alphabet, Greek coins and the preservation of food with salt.

2.3.1 The Greeks in the 5th century BC: The Example of Athens

THE GREEKS IN THE 5TH CENTURY BC: THE EXAMPLE OF ATHENS The Hellenic world in the 5th century BC

2.3.2 Geographical conditions

Greece is located on the Balkan Peninsula, in the Eastern Mediterranean.

Hellas – as the Greeks (or Hellenes) called their land – had a larger territory than today.

Beyond the Balkan Peninsula, Greece included numerous islands and a strip of territory in Asia Minor.

From the mid-8th century BC, the Greeks also expanded throughout the Mediterranean and the Black Sea. The soil of Greece is very mountainous and difficult to access.

There are few rivers and the soils are not very fertile.

The coastline is very indented, with many gulfs and bays.

2.3.3 Economic activities

Despite the poor agricultural land, the Greeks managed to cultivate, through hard work, cereals, vines and olive trees.

They also engaged in stock-raising (goats and sheep), but it was at sea that they sought better living conditions.

They therefore turned to fishing and trade.

2.3.4 Political organisation

Due to the geographical conditions of Greece, populations lived in isolation from one another.

Located in strategic positions, villages grew and gave rise to city-states.

Despite being divided into independent city-states, the Greeks considered themselves one people because they shared the same religion, language and customs.

- **City-state (or polis):**
- → a community with its own territory, government, laws and currency, and therefore independent of other city-states

2.3.4.1 Parts of a city-state

- **Acropolis:**
- → the high part of the city, where temples were located and gods were worshipped
- **Urban zone:**

- → the lower part of the city, where the population lived and where the agora was located (the public square where politics were discussed and citizens socialised)
- **Rural zone:**
- → made up of cultivated land, pastures or woodlands

The example of Athens

2.3.5 Location

Athens was a polis situated on the Attic Peninsula.

2.3.6 Economy

Athens had a commercial and monetary economy, due to the importance of trade and the use of coinage (the drachma) in commercial exchanges.

Thanks to the strength of its economy, Athens was the most powerful city in the Greek world.

2.3.7 Society

- **Citizens:**
- → sons of Athenian father and mother, over 18 years old → the only ones who could own land and participate in the political life of the polis
- **Metics:**
- → foreigners living in Athens → mainly engaged in crafts and trade → subject to military service and the payment of taxes
- **Slaves:**
- → prisoners of war → unfree men → worked on the land, in crafts, in domestic service, etc.

2.3.8 Political regime

In the 5th century BC, an innovative form of government was established – democracy.

- **Democracy:**
- → a political system in which power belongs to the people and which upholds equality

Since the city was governed by the citizens themselves, Athens is said to have been governed according to a direct democracy.

When citizens only have the possibility of choosing their rulers, that system is called indirect democracy.

2.3.8.1 Organs of power

- **Boulê (Council of Five Hundred):**
- → prepares bills → made up of 500 members chosen by lot
- **Ekklesia (Assembly of Citizens):**

- → approves the laws previously prepared by the Boulê → made up of all citizens
- **Strategoi (magistrates):**
- → command the army and navy and administer the city → 10 magistrates elected by citizens
- **Heliaia (popular tribunal):**
- → tries civil and criminal cases → made up of 6,000 judges chosen by lot

2.3.8.2 The role of Pericles

For the establishment of Athenian democracy, the measures of Solon, Cleisthenes and Pericles were important.

The last of these granted allowances to all citizens holding political positions, so that any citizen, even the poorest, could participate in political life.

2.3.8.3 Limitations of Athenian democracy

Only citizens, about 10% of the population, could participate in political life.

Athens relied on slaves, which contradicted the principle of equality.

As did the fact that Athens was a dominating people, possessing a powerful maritime empire. Despite these imperfections, the Athenian political system served as an inspiration for today's democracies.

2.3.9 Daily life

2.3.9.1 In the rural environment

Most Athenians lived in the countryside, engaged in rural work, with the help of two or three slaves.

These small landowners led simple lives and only travelled to the city to sell their produce and occasionally to attend sessions of the Ekklesia.

2.3.9.2 In the urban environment

Athenians who lived in the city enjoyed a lively life.

They spent most of their time outdoors.

The agora was the centre of Athenian life, crowded with shops and market stalls, where Athenians socialised and discussed political matters.

They frequented baths and gymnasia, as they placed great importance on health and physical appearance.

2.3.9.3 Athenian women

Women were responsible for domestic tasks and the education of children.

They lived in the part of the house reserved for them, the gynaeceum, remaining completely removed from public life.

They rarely went out, only to go shopping, and when they did they were accompanied by female slaves.

It was not even customary for them to attend public festivities, such as games and theatrical performances.

2.3.10 Education and training of the young

There was great concern for the education of young people, as they needed to be prepared for the defence of the polis and to participate in Athenian democratic life.

- **Up to age 7:**
- → they lived in the gynaeceum and were educated by their mothers
- **From age 7:**
- → boys went to school where they learned to read, write, recite ancient poems (about Greek heroes who were to serve as moral examples), arithmetic and music
- **From age 12:**
- → they began athletic exercises
- **From age 15:**
- → they continued their education in gymnasia, where they practised sports → they also learned sciences, arts and law
- **At age 18:**
- → they became citizens, performed military service and could begin to participate in political life

Girls, in turn, continued their education in the gynaeceum, preparing for domestic life.

2.3.11 Religion

The Greeks worshipped several gods, making them a polytheistic people.

Greek gods were represented in human form and, like humans, had their virtues and flaws.

They were distinguished from human beings by their powers and by being immortal.

The most important gods lived on Olympus, the highest mountain in Greece.

Besides the gods, the Greeks venerated heroes, men who had distinguished themselves by their extraordinary deeds in a distant past – they were considered demigods.

2.3.11.1 Types of worship

- **Family worship:**
- → performed at home by the head of the family → asking for protection from the gods of the hearth

- **Civic worship:**
- → performed in the city's temples by priests → in honour of the gods protecting the polis
- **Pan-Hellenic worship:**
- → gatherings of people from all over Greece at sanctuaries where games, music and poetry competitions were held → in honour of gods common to the entire Hellenic world → e.g.: the Olympic Games at the sanctuary of Olympia, in honour of Zeus

2.3.12 Culture

- **Theatre:**
- → born with the festivals in honour of Dionysus, god of wine → performances of tragedies and comedies → greatest authors: Aeschylus and Aristophanes
- **History:**
- → Herodotus and Thucydides narrated and recorded events from the Greek world and other peoples
- **Philosophy:**
- → Socrates, Plato and Aristotle, with their ideas, conveyed reflections on Good, Truth and the doubts and anxieties of Man

2.3.13 Art

- **Architecture:**
- → stadiums → theatres → temples:
- → three architectural orders → Doric, Ionic and Corinthian → main elements → pediment, frieze, architrave, column (consisting of capital, shaft and base) and stylobate → plan → rectangular
- main characteristics → balance and proportionality
- **Sculpture:**
- → main theme → Man → main characteristics → naturalism (perfection in human representation) and idealism (figures were always young or adult and represented according to an ideal of beauty)
- **Painting:**
- → known mainly through ceramics → main themes → scenes of daily life and Greek mythology → figures were painted in black on the red background of vessels and, later, in red on a black background.

2.3.14 The Romans on the Iberian Peninsula and the Roman World

2.3.14.1 The Romans on the Iberian Peninsula (general overview)

2.4 THE ROMANS ON THE IBERIAN PENINSULA

THE ROMAN CONQUEST AND THE RESISTANCE OF THE IBERIAN PEOPLES The conquest The Romans were a people from the Italian Peninsula who conquered several territories around

the Mediterranean Sea thanks to their powerful and organised army. Attracted by the wealth of the Iberian Peninsula, they conquered it in the 3rd century BC. In doing so they gained control of Mediterranean trade. The resistance The coastal populations of the south offered little resistance. The same was not true of the peoples of the Centre and North, who fought against the Romans for almost 200 years. One of the peoples who stood out in the struggle against the Romans were the Lusitanians, led by Viriathus. They set traps and ambushes, taking advantage of the mountains and gorges. The Roman Empire Meanwhile, not only the Iberian Peninsula was conquered, but a set of territories around the Mediterranean was brought under Roman rule, leading the Romans to build a great Empire. Its capital was the city of Rome and they held territories in Europe, Asia and Africa. The supreme leader of the Empire was the emperor.

2.5 THE ROMANISED IBERIAN PENINSULA

Roman legacy The Romans remained almost 700 years on the Iberian Peninsula and during this time the customs of the people changed, and buildings and structures were constructed that greatly influenced the way of life of the population. All the changes brought about by the Roman presence on the Iberian Peninsula are called Romanisation. The most significant transformations were:

- construction of roads, aqueducts, bridges, theatres, public baths, temples, monuments;
- houses roofed with tiles, with exterior gardens and floors decorated with mosaics;
- intensification of agricultural production (wine, olive oil and wheat) and of agricultural exploitation;
- creation of industries: fish salting, pottery, weaving;
- development of trade;
- greater use of coinage;
- the spoken language became Latin. The Christian era This period was also marked by the emergence of a new religion: Christianity. This new religion spread throughout the Empire and the reckoning of time began to be calculated from the Christian era, that is, from the birth of Jesus Christ (who began preaching this religion and claimed to be the Son of God). In reckoning time we can use the year, the decade (10 years), the century (100 years) and the millennium (1000 years). To convert years to centuries there are two simple rules:
- when the year ends in two zeros, the number of hundreds indicates the century. E.g.: year 1500, 15th century;
- when the year does not end in two zeros, add one to the number of hundreds. E.g.: 1548, 16th century.

2.5.0.1 The Roman World at the Height of the Empire

2.6 THE ROMAN WORLD AT THE HEIGHT OF THE EMPIRE

The Roman Empire

2.6.1 Foundation of Rome

The city of Rome is located on the Italian Peninsula and was founded in the middle of the 8th century BC.

2.6.2 Expansion of Rome

Initially it was a poor settlement of shepherds and farmers, but between the 4th century BC and the 2nd century AD it imposed its dominion over the entire peninsula.

Later, after victory over the Carthaginians, it dominated the entire Mediterranean and some regions of Europe, forming a great empire.

- **Mare Nostrum:**
- → the Romans called the Mediterranean Sea "Mare Nostrum" (Our Sea) because they had conquered all the territories around it.

2.6.2.1 Reasons for Roman expansion

- **Security:**
- → at first, the Romans had to defend themselves from attacks by their neighbours and, to avoid defeat, had to subdue them
- **Economic motivations:**
- → by conquering territories, the Romans obtained their goods and riches (agricultural products, minerals, slaves, etc.)
- **Social motivations:**
- → new positions for military officers, new markets for businessmen and new rural properties for settlers
- **Ambition of leaders:**
- → political leaders sought honour and glory through new conquests

2.6.3 Political regimes

2.6.3.1 Republican regime

When Rome began its expansion, its political system was a republic.

- **Assembly (comitia):**
- → group of citizens who elected the magistrates and held legislative power
- **Magistrates:**
- → held executive power, that is, governed the Republic

- **Senate:**
- → directed foreign policy and appointed provincial governors

2.6.3.2 Imperial regime

As Rome expanded, the ambition of many rulers grew and many fought among themselves for power.

It became necessary to create a stronger regime to achieve unity.

In 27 BC, Octavian Caesar Augustus founded a new political regime, called the Empire.

The Senate, Magistrates and Comitia continued to exist, but many of their powers were transferred to the emperor. - **Powers of the emperor:** - → commanded the army → directed foreign policy → controlled the entire administration → was the supreme priest

2.6.4 Integration of conquered peoples

The Romans sought to transmit their civilisation to the different peoples of the Empire in order to promote their integration and develop more backward regions.

- **Romanisation:**
- → the process of assimilation of Roman culture (language, religion and customs)
- **Instruments of integration:**
- → powerful army guaranteeing peace – pax romana → establishment of public administration → vast road network → the Latin language → Roman law → right of citizenship

2.6.5 Economy

The Roman economy was urban (centred on cities), commercial (due to the importance of trade), monetary (due to the use of coinage) and slave-based (due to the use of slaves).

2.6.6 Society

Roman society was hierarchical and stratified, being divided into social strata, each with its level of social importance.

- **Senatorial order:**
- → senators, magistrates and provincial governors → held senior positions in central administration and the army → owned large rural estates, the latifundia → possessed great fortunes
- **Equestrian order:**
- → knights who came to devote themselves to imperial administration, trade and business → possessed great fortunes, though somewhat less than members of the senatorial order
- **Plebs:**
- → small landowners and peasants – rural plebs → craftsmen and small traders – urban plebs → the poorest depended on wealthy families or were fed by the State
- **Freed servants:**
- → slaves who had been granted freedom

- **Slaves:**
- → unfree men → assigned the hardest work

2.6.7 Religion

The Romans adopted many gods from conquered peoples.

The greatest example is the gods from Greek mythology. The names changed, but the attributes were the same.

2.6.7.1 Types of worship

- **Family worship:**
- → performed at home, with veneration of the souls of ancestors (Manes), the protective gods of the hearth (Lares) and the gods of provisions (Penates)
- **Civic worship:**
- → performed in temples, by priests

2.6.7.2 Christianity

During the Roman Empire, a new religion emerged that upheld the existence of a single God – Christianity, which later became the official religion of the empire.

2.6.8 Art

- **Architecture:**
- → Greek influence → columns, pediments and friezes → innovations → rounded arch, barrel vault and dome → characteristics → monumentality, durability, practical and utilitarian character → types of construction → aqueducts, basilicas, baths, circuses, amphitheatres, triumphal arches and temples
- **Urbanism:**
- → city organisation was based on utility → all cities were built in the likeness of Rome → at the centre was the forum (the main square with some of the most important temples and public buildings) → around the forum the urban core was built
- **Painting:**
- main themes → portraiture, landscapes, scenes of daily life, historical or mythological subjects → frescoes with vivid colours creating an impression of depth → main characteristic → realism
- **Sculpture:**
- high reliefs and statues → main characteristic → realism

2.6.9 Culture

- **Literature:**
- → Cicero → great orator of the Republican era → Virgil → poet, author of the epic "Aeneid" → Livy → historian, author of "A History of Rome"

- **Law:**
- → elaboration of laws to regulate Roman society and the functioning of the State

Romanisation of the Iberian Peninsula

2.6.10 Conquest of the Iberian Peninsula

Conquest of the Iberian Peninsula at the end of the 3rd century BC

A very difficult conquest due to the resistance of the peninsular peoples, among them the Lusitanians

The Iberian Peninsula was then divided into three provinces: Tarraconensis, Baetica and Lusitania

Most cities gained some administrative autonomy and were declared municipalities

A municipality had its own magistrates, elected by the inhabitants

2.6.11 Roman legacy in the Iberian Peninsula

Numerous cities

Vast network of roads, bridges, aqueducts and temples

Development of agriculture, crafts, mining and trade

Roman customs such as clothing and food

The Latin language

Christianity

2.6.12 Origin and Spread of Christianity

2.7 ORIGIN AND SPREAD OF CHRISTIANITY

Origin of Christianity

2.7.1 Who were the Hebrews

Nomadic shepherds who lived in Mesopotamia

Moved to Palestine, led by Abraham, and then to Egypt, attracted by its riches, but ended up being enslaved

They then left Egypt and returned to Palestine – the Promised Land – where they founded the State of Israel

2.7.2 Diaspora

When Judaea (Palestine) was conquered by the Romans, the Jews (Hebrews) did not accept foreign rule and were forced to leave their land.

- **Diaspora:**
- → the dispersal of Jews throughout the Mediterranean world because they were forced to leave their land

2.7.3 Messianism

The Bible was the holy book of this people.

They believed in a single God (Yahweh or Jehovah). They were therefore a monotheistic people.

Having been subjected to many persecutions over the ages, the Jews awaited the coming of a Messiah, the Saviour, sent by God, to free them from their oppressors.

2.7.4 Jesus Christ and Christianity

Jesus Christ, born in Judaea, in Bethlehem, presented himself as the Messiah, the Son of God who came to Earth to save humanity.

He promised eternal life after death to those who followed his word.

He was considered by a minority to be the awaited Messiah, and so a new religion emerged – Christianity.

His message was intended for all, not only for the Jews. Christianity is therefore said to have had a universal character.

The life and message of Jesus Christ is known through the Gospels (which, together with the Acts of the Apostles, the Epistles and the Book of Revelation, constitute the New Testament that Christians added to the Jewish Bible).

- **Principles of Christianity:**
- → equality → peace → love of God and neighbour → tolerance → forgiveness for the repentant
- → humility and simplicity

Spread of Christianity

2.7.5 What happened to the first Christians

The Hebrew priests feared that the equality preached by Jesus Christ would undermine their authority and, on the other hand, the Romans feared that the Jews would revolt against them.

The first Christians were therefore persecuted and many were killed.

Jesus Christ himself was persecuted and crucified, which is why the cross is today one of the symbols of Christianity.

Nevertheless, his message did not die. On the contrary, Christianity spread throughout the Roman Empire in the following centuries.

2.7.6 Conditions that facilitated the spread of the Christian message throughout the Roman Empire

Existence of numerous cities

Ease of communication (vast road network linking the entire empire)

Two languages (Latin and Greek) understood by almost the entire population

Presence of Jews throughout the empire

2.7.7 Acceptance of Christianity in the Roman Empire

- **Edict of Milan (313):**
- → Emperor Constantine decreed religious freedom in the empire → Christians were no longer persecuted and Christianity became accepted
- **Edict of Thessalonica (380):**
- → Emperor Theodosius declared Christianity the official religion of the empire

The Barbarian invasions and the fall of the Roman Empire

2.7.8 End of the Roman Empire and the Barbarian Peoples

2.7.9 End of the Western Roman Empire and the beginning of the Middle Ages (476)

- **Causes of the fall of the Western Roman Empire:**
- → military indiscipline → corruption of officials → frequent changes of emperor → food shortages, famines and epidemics → invasions by Barbarian peoples

The fall of the Western Roman Empire in 476 marks the beginning of the Middle Ages.

2.7.10 Barbarian peoples

The Romans called Barbarians those peoples who surrounded their empire and had different languages and customs

They were semi-nomadic peoples

They mainly engaged in agriculture, stock-raising and warfare

They were pagan (the name given by Christians to followers of polytheistic religions) or Arian (practitioners of Arianism, a Christian heresy)

Pressured by the Huns, and taking advantage of the weaknesses of the Roman Empire, they began to attack its territories, where they formed various kingdoms

- **Barbarian kingdoms:**

- → Suevi and Visigoths → on the Iberian Peninsula → Franks and Burgundians → in present-day France → Ostrogoths → on the Italian Peninsula → Anglo-Saxons → in Great Britain → Vandals → in North Africa and the Mediterranean islands

The role of the Catholic Church

2.7.11 Defence of cities

During the climate of insecurity brought about by the Barbarian invasions, it was often the bishops who organised the defence of cities.

2.7.12 Christianisation of Barbarian peoples

Popes, bishops and monks began by Christianising the Barbarian chiefs, and then the population.

- **Action of Pope Gregory the Great:**
- → developed missionary work, resulting in the conversion of the Visigothic, Lombard and Anglo-Saxon kings
- **Baptism of King Clovis:**
- → beginning of the conversion of the Franks
- **Spread of monasticism:**
- → creation of religious orders (communities of monks living under a rule they must obey) → founding of monasteries among the population with the following functions:
- evangelisation (conversion to Christianity) → assistance to the poor and sick → education and culture (through the creation of schools and libraries)

2.7.13 The Catholic Church as a factor of unity in a fragmented Europe

After the Barbarian invasions, Europe was fragmented into several kingdoms, with Christianity and the Catholic Church serving as a unifying factor among European peoples, thanks to their roles in defence and evangelisation.

2.7.14 Rule of Saint Benedict of Nursia

Saint Benedict of Nursia founded several communities and wrote a rule with instructions that monks were to follow.

Other monasteries followed other rules, but Benedict's rule eventually supplanted all others in the West.

- **Benedictine Order**
- → monks were to devote their time to prayer, study and manual labour, including work in the fields → they could not marry or own personal property → they had to live in community and obey the orders of their superior or abbot

2.7.15 Organisation of the Catholic Church

- **Supreme authority**
- → the Pope
- **Secular clergy → lives among the population**
- → archbishops and bishops → upper clergy → parish priests → lower clergy
- **Regular clergy → lives in monasteries**
- → abbots → upper clergy → monks and nuns → lower clergy

Second wave of invasions – between the 8th and 10th centuries

2.7.16 New invasions in Europe

- **Muslims (Moors):**
- → came from North Africa → attacked Europe from the south
- **Normans (Vikings):**
- → came from Scandinavia → attacked Europe from the north
- **Hungarians (Magyars):**
- → came from Asia → attacked Europe from the east

2.7.17 Consequences of the invasions

Climate of insecurity → kings could not guarantee the safety of the population

Abandonment of cities → seeking protection with powerful lords (clergy and nobles)

Ruralisation → predominance of agriculture, but little productive due to primitive techniques and tools

Economic regression → reduction in production

No surpluses → lack of products for sale

Weakening of trade

Subsistence economy → production for self-consumption

2.8 Chapter 2: The Early Middle Ages (5th–12th century)

After the fall of Rome, Europe fragmented into Barbarian kingdoms while the Catholic Church became the great unifying factor. In the East, Islam was born and the Muslims built a vast empire that reached the Iberian Peninsula in 711. The long Christian Reconquest followed, giving rise to the peninsular kingdoms. In the rest of Europe, feudal society organised itself around lordships. It is in this context that the County of Portucale was born and, in 1143, the Kingdom of Portugal.

2.8.1 The Muslim World and the Occupation of the Iberian Peninsula

2.8.1.1 The Muslim Occupation of the Iberian Peninsula

2.9 THE MUSLIMS ON THE IBERIAN PENINSULA

2.10 THE MUSLIM OCCUPATION

The prophet Muhammad and Islam In the 6th century Arabia (a peninsula in Asia) was quite poor. It was here that Muhammad, born in the city of Mecca, announced himself in 612 as a prophet (sent by God to reveal sacred truths to men) and began preaching a new religion – Islam. The followers of this religion are called Muslims and they believe in a single god – Allah. The principles of this religion are gathered in a holy book called the Quran. Obligations of Muslims:

- to recognise Allah as the one God and Muhammad as his prophet;
- to pray five times a day facing Mecca;
- to fast during the month of Ramadan;
- to give alms to the poorest;
- to go to Mecca at least once in a lifetime. Conquest of the Iberian Peninsula The Muslims began to conquer new territories in order to:
- spread Islam, seeking to convert other peoples to their religion;
- improve their living conditions since Arabia was a very poor territory. Territories in Asia, North Africa were conquered and, in 711, the conquest of the Iberian Peninsula began. The Moors (the name for Muslims from North Africa) entered through the Strait of Gibraltar and defeated the Christian Visigoths at the Battle of Guadalete. Very quickly (within about two years) the Muslims occupied almost the entire Iberian Peninsula, with the exception of Asturias and part of the Pyrenees, due to their adverse conditions. This occupation was carried out through force of arms but, in many cases, agreements were made with the Visigoths allowing them to live in peace and to mix freely, provided they submitted to the new conquerors.

2.10.0.1 The Muslim World in Expansion

2.11 THE MUSLIM WORLD IN EXPANSION

The origin of Islam and the Muslim Empire

2.11.1 Arabia until the early 7th century

Arab populations near the coast were sedentary and engaged in agriculture and trade.

In the desert, tribes led by sheikhs lived according to the oases. They were nomadic and engaged in caravan trade.

The Arabs were polytheistic. Each tribe worshipped different deities.

There was no political or religious unification.

2.11.2 The prophet Muhammad and Islam

Muhammad was born in Mecca, where he began his preaching.

According to tradition, in 610, he received a divine revelation through the angel Gabriel.

He then considered himself a prophet, that is, a bearer of God's word.

He founded a new monotheistic religion – Islam.

Islam has as its holy book the Quran (or Koran).

Its followers are called Muslims.

They believe in the immortality of the soul and in obtaining salvation through charity and prayer.

- **Pillars of the Islamic faith:**
- → believing in a single God (Allah) and in Muhammad as his prophet → praying 5 times a day facing Mecca → going to Mecca at least once in a lifetime → fasting during the month of Ramadan → giving alms to the poor

2.11.3 The Hegira (622)

Muhammad had to flee to Medina because his preaching was poorly received by the merchants who dominated the city of Mecca.

This journey was called the Hegira.

This episode of Muhammad's flight marks the beginning of the Muslim calendar.

2.11.4 Formation of the Muslim Empire

Islam gained ever-greater numbers of believers.

When Muhammad died in 632, most of Arabia was already converted to the new religion and formed a single State.

Arabia was then led by a caliph, who was at the same time political and religious leader.

Thus there was both political and religious unification.

It was under the direction of the first caliphs that the expansion process began, leading to the formation of the Muslim Empire.

- **Reasons why Muslims conquered territories:**

- → desire to spread Islam → search for fertile land, since Arabia was a poor territory → wish to control the main trade routes between East and West
- **Holy War (jihad):**
- → the struggle to defend and expand Islam is considered a "holy war", a duty of all believers → they believed that those who died in such circumstances were granted immediate entry into paradise
- **Conquered territories:**
- → from the River Indus in Asia to the Iberian Peninsula, covering all of the Middle East and North Africa

2.11.5 Language and religion as a factor of unity

The caliphs had difficulty maintaining the unity of such a vast empire.

From the mid-8th century, some provinces became autonomous and the empire eventually fragmented into several independent kingdoms.

Despite this fragmentation, the Arabic language and the Islamic religion remained as factors of unity of the Muslim world. Islamic civilisation

2.11.6 The cosmopolitan, commercial and urban character of the medieval Islamic world

Muslims were essentially merchants.

Muslim cities teemed with people and activity and were important commercial centres.

In addition to intense internal trade, they controlled outside the empire a vast network of commercial routes.

- **Products transported by Muslims:**
- → from Africa → gold, ivory and slaves → from India → spices, perfumes and precious stones (spice route) → from China → silks and porcelain (silk route) → from Northern Asia → amber, furs, weapons and metals

2.11.7 Scientific innovations

- **Medicine:**
- → identification of many diseases → improvement of surgery
- **Chemistry:**
- → discovery of alcohol and sulphuric acid
- **Astronomy:**
- → improvement in the use of the astrolabe and compass
- **Mathematics:**
- → creation of algebra → popularisation of numerals
- **Geography:**

- → descriptions of many countries in Africa and Asia

2.11.8 Typical architectural and decorative elements of mosques

Domed roofing.

Horseshoe arch.

Decoration with mosaics and painted stuccos.

Decoration with plant or geometric motifs and religious phrases (the Quran prohibits the representation of animals and the human figure).

2.11.9 Christians and Muslims during the Reconquest

2.12 CHRISTIANS AND MUSLIMS DURING THE CHRISTIAN RECONQUEST

Christian resistance During the Muslim occupation, some Visigothic nobles managed to take refuge in Asturias (a mountainous region in the north of the Iberian Peninsula). It was from here that the Christians formed resistance groups against the Muslims and, in 722, achieved their first great victory, at the Battle of Covadonga, led by Pelagius. After this event, the Kingdom of Asturias was formed. The Christian Reconquest It was from Asturias and from the Pyrenees area that the Christian Reconquest began: that is, Christians began to fight the Muslims to reclaim the lands they had lost to them. Christian kingdoms formed from the Kingdom of Asturias:

- Kingdom of León;
- Kingdom of Castile;
- Kingdom of Navarre;
- Kingdom of Aragon. Each kingdom aimed to conquer lands to the south from the Muslims in order to expel them from the Iberian Peninsula. It took almost 800 years to achieve this. Meanwhile there were also periods of peace and fraternisation. Christians and Muslims gradually became accustomed to accepting customs and traditions different from their own.

2.12.1 The Muslim Legacy

2.13 THE MUSLIM LEGACY

Muslim influence on peninsular peoples The peoples most influenced by the Muslim presence on the Iberian Peninsula were those of the south, since that is where they remained longest. The main Muslim marks were:

- construction of mosques and palaces decorated with tiles;
- houses with terraces and interior courtyards, whitewashed;
- development of craft industries such as weapons, carts and carpets;
- development of agriculture with new irrigation methods, the noria, the shadoof and the weir;

- introduction of new plants such as the orange tree, lemon tree, almond tree, fig tree and olive tree;
- new knowledge in medicine, navigation, astronomy and mathematics;
- around 600 words, most beginning with al-.

2.13.1 European Society in the 9th to 12th Centuries

2.14 EUROPEAN SOCIETY IN THE 9TH TO 12TH CENTURIES

Medieval society

2.14.1 Tripartite society

Medieval society was tripartite, that is, divided into three social groups: the clergy, the nobility (aristocracy) and the people (peasants and craftsmen).

The clergy and nobility were privileged groups → they owned land and had various privileges and rights, including their own laws and courts.

The people were a non-privileged group → they worked the land of the privileged and also had various obligations such as the payment of taxes.

- **Functions of social groups:**
- → Clergy → to pray and care for the salvation of souls, and to assist the king in war → Nobility → to fight to ensure the defence of society → People → to work for the sustenance of all

2.14.2 Seigniorial power

The invasions of Europe between the 8th and 10th centuries created a climate of insecurity among the population.

Kings proved unable to protect the population, and as a result their power weakened.

Most of the population sought protection from powerful lords (clergy and nobles), who had wealth and military strength.

Almost the entire population is said to have become subject to seigniorial power.

- **Powers of lords:**
- → had their own armies → administered justice → demanded the payment of taxes

2.14.3 The lordship domain

- **Lordship domain (or seigniory):**
- → property belonging to lords over which seigniorial power was exercised

- **Parts of the lordship domain:**
- → reserve:
- → the part directly exploited by the lord → where the lord's residence, the mill, the church, the oven, the winepress, the granary and the most fertile lands were located
- → manses (or homesteads):
- → lands worked by peasants in exchange for various obligations
- **Obligations of peasants:**
- → payment of rents in money and in kind (produce) → performance of corvées (unpaid labour on the reserve) → payment of banalités (for use of the lord's equipment such as the mill and oven)

In the lordship domain there lived and worked free peasants – the colonists – and a majority of unfree peasants – the serfs.

Serfs could not, without the lord's permission, leave the lordship domain, nor marry outside it.

2.14.4 Relations of dependence between lords

Kings granted fiefs (lands, money or positions) to great lords in exchange for vassalage and military assistance.

In turn, more powerful lords also granted fiefs to less powerful lords.

Various relations of vassalage were thus established, in which the vassal pledged obedience to the suzerain.

- **Obligations of suzerains:**
- → sustenance → protection
- **Obligations of vassals:**
- → obedience → loyalty → military assistance → counsel

2.14.4.1 Contract of vassalage

The vassal relationship was established by an agreement called the contract of vassalage.

- **Ceremonies of the contract of vassalage:**
- → homage:
- → the vassal declares his wish to come under the suzerain's protection
- → oath of fealty:
- → the vassal swears obedience and loyalty to the suzerain
- → investiture:
- → the suzerain gives the vassal an object representing the fief (the benefit given to the vassal, which could be money, a position or lands)

2.14.4.2 Feudal society

A hierarchical society was defined in which a suzerain could be the vassal of another more powerful lord.

The king was considered the suzerain of suzerains, since all were his vassals.

This society became known as feudal society.

- **Feudal society:**
- → a hierarchical society based on various relations of vassalage
- **Feudalism:**
- → the political and social system of a feudal society Technical innovations and economic dynamism

Agricultural innovations in the 12th and 13th centuries New tools:

- iron tools, more resistant and effective
- the appearance of the heavy plough (a more developed type of plough) that allowed heavier and deeper cultivation of the land
- spread of water mills, then windmills
- new harnessing system (the horse collar), which did not impede the animal's breathing and allowed it to make greater efforts

New cultivation methods:

- improvement of irrigation methods
- fertilisation of fields using ash and manure
- the fallow system and crop rotation

Distinguishing between markets and fairs Markets

- local or regional scale
- normally fortnightly or monthly

Fairs

- regional, national or international scale
- normally annual Economic importance of European commercial centres Main European commercial centres:
- In Italy
- Venice
- Genoa
- Florence
- In Northern Europe

- Flanders
- Cities of the Baltic Sea

Importance of money-changers Money-changers evaluated various currencies and made the corresponding exchanges, that is, currency exchange. Characteristics of the mendicant orders (Franciscans and Dominicans)

- refused ownership of material goods
- lived on alms
- practised charity
- lived in permanent contact with the populations

2.14.5 The Formation of the Kingdom of Portugal

2.15 THE FORMATION OF THE KINGDOM OF PORTUGAL

AFONSO HENRIQUES AND THE STRUGGLE FOR INDEPENDENCE The County of Portucale During the Christian Reconquest, the Christian kings of the Iberian Peninsula asked other Christian kingdoms of Europe for help to reconquer territories from the Muslims. The knights who came to help in the struggle against the Muslims were called crusaders. At the request of King Alfonso VI of León and Castile, the crusaders Raymond of Burgundy and Henry of Burgundy came from France. In exchange for their services the crusaders received:

- Raymond: the hand of the king's legitimate daughter, Urraca, and the County of Galicia;
- Henry: the hand of the king's illegitimate daughter, Teresa, and the County of Portucale. These counties belonged to the Kingdom of León, so Henry had to pledge obedience, loyalty and military assistance to King Alfonso VI. In 1112 he died and, as his son Afonso Henriques was only 4 years old, Teresa governed the County of Portucale. The struggle for independence In 1125, at the age of 16, Afonso Henriques knighted himself, as only kings did. Afonso Henriques ambitioned to fulfil his father Henry's desire: to make the County of Portucale independent from the Kingdom of León and Castile. At this time, Teresa was having a romantic relationship with a Galician nobleman, Count Fernando Peres de Trava. This relationship jeopardised the ambition of making the County of Portucale independent. Therefore, supported by some Portucale nobles, Afonso Henriques revolted against his mother. In 1128, Teresa was defeated at the Battle of São Mamede by Afonso Henriques, who then began to govern the County of Portucale. Afonso Henriques now faced two struggles:
- the struggle against Alfonso VII, to achieve independence for the County of Portucale;
- the struggle against the Muslims, to expand the territory southwards. The Kingdom of Portugal For the formation of Portugal, the following battles were very important:
- 1136: Battle of Cerneja, where Afonso Henriques defeated the Galicians.
- 1139: Battle of Ourique, where Afonso Henriques defeated the armies of five Moorish kings.

- 1140: Battle of Arcos de Valdevez, where Afonso Henriques again defeated the armies of Alfonso VII. With these victories by Afonso Henriques, Alfonso VII, his cousin and now King of León and Castile, was forced to make a peace agreement – the Treaty of Zamora. In this treaty, signed in 1143, Alfonso VII granted independence to the County of Portucale, which became the Kingdom of Portugal, and recognised Afonso Henriques as its king. The conquest of the Tagus line Having made peace with the King of León and Castile, Afonso Henriques focused exclusively on conquering territories to the south from the Moors in order to expand the kingdom of Portugal:
- 1145: definitive conquest of Leiria;
- 1147: conquest of Santarém and Lisbon. In the reconquest of lands from the Moors, almost the entire Portuguese population capable of bearing arms participated:
- noble lords and warrior monks: they fought on horseback, commanded the warriors and received land as reward for their services to the king;
- men of the people: they fought on foot and were the vast majority of combatants.

In some battles the Portuguese were also aided by well-trained crusaders with weapons designed to attack walls, who came from Northern Europe. Recognition of the kingdom Although King Alfonso VII had recognised Afonso Henriques as King of Portugal in 1143, the same was not true of the Pope. The Pope was the supreme head of the Catholic Church and held great powers. Christian kings owed him total obedience and loyalty. For the independence of a kingdom to be respected by other Christian kingdoms, it had to be recognised by him. To obtain this recognition Afonso Henriques had churches and cathedrals built and granted privileges and benefits to monasteries. Only in 1179 was recognition granted by Pope Alexander III through a papal bull (a document written by the Pope).

2.15.1 The Kingdom of Portugal and the Algarve

2.16 THE KINGDOM OF PORTUGAL AND THE ALGARVE

Expansion of territory and definition of borders Portugal was a monarchy from 1143 to 1910, meaning that during this period Portugal was always governed by a king. The Portuguese monarchy was hereditary. This means that the king's eldest son (the crown prince) succeeded him. After the death of Afonso Henriques, he was succeeded by:

- Sancho I;
- Afonso II;
- Sancho II;
- Afonso III;
- etc. The first 4 kings of Portugal after Afonso Henriques continued to conquer territories from the Moors until in 1249 Afonso III definitively conquered the Algarve. Meanwhile, the

territorial boundaries were not fully defined since there were zones to the north and east still disputed with the Kingdom of León and Castile. Only in 1297, with the Treaty of Alcanices, between King Dinis of Portugal and King Fernando of León and Castile, were the borders of Portuguese territory defined, which have remained approximately the same to this day. Only in 1801 did Spain occupy Olivença, which is no longer part of Portugal. Natural characteristics of Portugal The relief of Portugal in the 13th century had characteristics similar to those of today. Noteworthy are the contrasts that still exist today:

- North/South: high lands, plateaus and mountain ranges in the north, while in the south low-altitude lands such as plains predominate;
- Coast/Interior: on the coast there are small coastal plains while in the interior there are plateaus and mountain ranges. The rivers flow towards the Atlantic following the slope of the relief and are more numerous in the North. Regarding the climate, three climatic zones stand out:
- Northern Coast: abundant rainfall and mild temperatures in both Summer and Winter;
- Northern Interior: little rainfall, very cold in Winter and hot in Summer;
- South: little rainfall, mild winters and very high temperatures in summer, especially in the interior. However, not all natural characteristics remain exactly the same as today. Over time the landscape of Portuguese territory has changed due to human influence and Nature itself. One example is the fact that rivers were formerly more navigable, but with the accumulation of sands carried by the rivers themselves the coastline became more regular, making the rivers less navigable over time. In the 13th century, natural vegetation was abundant, that is, vegetation not yet modified by man. In the North there were very dense forests with deciduous trees and in the South the forests were less dense and evergreen trees predominated. Allocation of lands When lands were reconquered, kings needed to populate, defend and exploit them to prevent them from being reoccupied by the Moors. Kings reserved part of these lands for themselves and gave most to nobles and military religious orders as reward for their help in war, as well as to non-military religious orders so that the lands would be populated more quickly. Thus, the lands belonged to the king, the Nobility and the Clergy. The people worked these lands and in exchange received protection. Exploitation of natural resources The exploitation of the natural resources of the lands was carried out through:
- uncultivated land: stock-raising, hunting and gathering of products (such as firewood, timber, cork, wild fruits, honey and wax).
- arable land: agriculture producing cereals, wine, olive oil, vegetables, fruit and flax.
- sea and rivers: fishing and salt production. Craft production:
- The clothing, footwear, tools and all objects needed for the daily life of shepherds, farmers and fishermen were made by hand using products taken directly from Nature or materials provided by agriculture and stock-raising.

2.17 Chapter 3: 13th–14th Centuries — Medieval Portugal

With its borders practically defined, Portugal turned to internal organisation. The 13th century is marked by medieval daily life — agriculture, fairs, monasteries and the emergence of the first universities. Portuguese culture oscillated between Romanesque and Gothic models. The 14th century brought devastating crises: the Black Death, famine and dynastic wars. In Portugal, the crisis culminated in the Revolution of 1383–1385 and the rise of the Avis dynasty, opening the way to the Age of Discoveries.

2.17.1 Daily Life in the 13th Century

Social orders The Portuguese population in the 13th century was made up of three social groups:

- nobility: a privileged group that owned land, paid no taxes, collected taxes and administered justice on their lands. Their main activity was to fight;
- clergy: a privileged group that owned land, paid no taxes, collected taxes and administered justice on their lands. Their main activity was religious service;
- people: a non-privileged group that worked the lands of the king, the nobility and the clergy and also had to pay taxes. All social groups owed the king loyalty, obedience and assistance. Daily life on seigniorial lands Seigniorial lands, or lordships, belonged to noble lords who lived in a fortified house situated on the highest ground. Around it were cultivated fields, the forest, the mill and the houses of the peasants who worked the land. On these lands it was the noble who administered justice, recruited men for his army and collected taxes from all who worked there. In exchange, he was obliged to protect the people who depended on him. Activities of nobles:
- in wartime: they fought;
- in peacetime: they practised hunting, horse-riding and sporting activities that prepared them for war. Pastimes of nobles:
- At night they entertained themselves with parlour games, such as chess and dice, with entertainers performing feats, and with troubadours who played and sang. Seigniorial house:
- the great hall was the most important room and was where the noble gave his orders, received guests and where meals were served;
- the furniture in the house was a table, chests for storing clothes and other domestic objects, few chairs and benches called escanos;
- for lighting at night, olive oil lamps or torches and wax and tallow candles were used. Diet of nobles:

- normally two meals were eaten, lunch and supper, with meat, wheat bread, wine, cheese and a little fruit predominating. On the other hand, peasants had a hard and difficult life. They worked six days a week in the fields of the noble lords and still had to pay them taxes, as only this guaranteed protection. Activities of peasants:
- working in the fields. Pastimes of peasants:
- attending Mass, processions and pilgrimages. Peasant's house:
- thatched roof, wooden or stone walls, almost without openings, and earthen floor;
- only one room with little furniture;
- sleeping in a corner covered with bundles of straw. Diet of peasants:
- based on black bread made from mixed grains or chestnuts, accompanied by onions, garlic or bacon. Only on feast days was there cheese, eggs and pieces of meat. Daily life in monasteries The clergy, whose main function was religious service, was divided into two:
- secular clergy: priests, bishops and canons who lived among the population in villages or cities;
- regular clergy: friars (or monks) and nuns who lived in monasteries or convents. Life in the monastery was directed by the abbot or abbess. The monks devoted their lives to God and religious service, meditating, praying and singing religious chants. In addition to religious service, monks also devoted themselves to teaching. For a long time, the clergy was the only social order that could read and write. Schools were founded near monasteries, monks were the teachers and the pupils were future monks. There were also copyist monks who devoted themselves to copying the most important books and illuminated the text with paintings called miniatures. All monasteries had infirmaries where the sick were received and treated by monks. Assistance was also given to pilgrims travelling to sanctuaries to fulfil vows or to pray. The clergy also practised agriculture and produced everything they needed. Diet of clergy:
- the main meal was taken communally and in silence, in the refectory: soup, bread, a little meat or fish on days of abstinence. Daily life in municipalities A municipality was a settlement that had received a foral or charter. The charter was a document describing the rights and duties of the municipality's inhabitants towards the lord (owner) of the land. The inhabitants of a municipality had more privileges than those who did not live there:
- they owned some land;
- they only paid the taxes required by the charter. There was also an assembly of good men, formed by the wealthiest and most respected men of the municipality, which resolved the main problems of the municipality. They elected judges among themselves to administer justice and stewards to collect taxes. Municipalities were made up of a more developed settlement (the town) and rural localities around it (the term). Many municipalities were created by the king but some were also created by great noble lords and the clergy on their lordships, arising from

the need to ensure the settlement and defence of lands reconquered from the Moors and to develop economic activities. Main activities:

- agriculture, stock-raising, fishing: peasants and fishermen;
- crafts: there were small workshops where craftsmen performed work by hand (manufacture), using very primitive techniques and tools;
- trade: peasants and craftsmen gathered to sell their products, giving rise to markets and later to fairs (larger than markets and with greater abundance and variety of products). The creation of fairs contributed to the development of internal trade, that is, the exchange and sale of products within the country. However, at this time Portugal also traded with other countries – external trade. External trade contributed to the development of coastal cities and also led to the emergence of a new social group: the bourgeoisie. The bourgeois were men of the people, merchants and craftsmen, who enriched themselves through external trade. Daily life at court The court was made up of the king's family, advisers and officials. The court always followed the king. Pastimes:
- Banquets and soirées (evening parties) where there were performances by troubadours (who sang and played musical instruments).

2.17.2 Portuguese Culture Facing European Models

2.18 Portuguese Culture Facing European Models

2.18.1 Medieval Education

2.18.1.1 Monastic and Cathedral Schools

During the Middle Ages, education was closely linked to the Church:

- **Monastic Schools** – functioned in monasteries, intended mainly for training future monks and clerics
- **Cathedral Schools** – situated near cathedrals, also open to laypeople wishing to pursue ecclesiastical or administrative careers

These schools taught: - Reading and writing in Latin - Gregorian chant - Liberal arts (grammar, rhetoric, dialectics, arithmetic, geometry, music and astronomy)

2.18.1.2 Universities

From the 12th century, universities emerged as centres of higher education:

- **Origin:** evolved from cathedral schools, gaining autonomy and papal recognition
- **Method:** rational study of theology and non-religious fields (law, medicine, philosophy)
- **Organisation:** masters and students organised themselves into corporations with their own statutes

In Portugal: - The **University of Lisbon** was founded in 1290 by King Dinis - Later transferred to Coimbra (1308), it returned to Lisbon and was permanently established in Coimbra in 1537 - Theology, Canon Law, Civil Law and Medicine were taught

2.18.2 Popular Culture

Medieval popular culture manifested itself through:

Festivities and celebrations: - Religious festivals (Christmas, Easter, patron saints' days) - Fairs and pilgrimages with music, dance and theatrical performances - Games and tournaments

Oral tradition: - Songs of friend, love and mockery (cantigas de amigo, amor e escárnio) - Legends and folk tales - Proverbs and riddles

Crafts: - Ceramics, weaving and metalwork - Decoration of churches and houses with folk motifs

2.18.3 The Romanesque and Gothic Styles

2.18.3.1 The Romanesque Style (11th–12th centuries)

The Romanesque style was the first great artistic style of medieval Christian Europe.

Main characteristics: - **Thick stone walls** to support the weight of the construction - **Barrel vaults** (semicircular) or groin vaults - **Rounded arches** (semicircular) - **Small windows** that admitted little light, creating dark interiors - **Latin cross plans** with a central nave and side aisles - **Robust towers** on the façades

Decoration: - Sculptures on capitals and portals with biblical scenes and fantastical figures - Wall paintings (frescoes) inside the churches

Examples in Portugal: - **Braga Cathedral** – one of the oldest Portuguese cathedrals - **Porto Cathedral** – construction begun in the 12th century - **Lisbon Cathedral** – ordered built by Afonso Henriques after the conquest of Lisbon - **Coimbra Cathedral** – a notable example of Portuguese Romanesque - **Church of São Pedro de Rates** – considered one of the finest examples of Romanesque in Portugal - **Paço de Sousa Monastery**

Portuguese regional specificities: - Influence of French masters from the Cluny order - Adaptation to local conditions (available materials, climate) - More sober decoration compared to other European countries

2.18.3.2 The Gothic Style (12th–15th centuries)

The Gothic style originated in France in the 12th century and spread throughout Europe, representing a technical and aesthetic evolution from the Romanesque.

Main characteristics: - **Thinner walls** thanks to the system of external buttresses - **Rib vaults** – crossed ribs that distribute the weight - **Pointed arches (ogival)** – taller and more elegant than semicircular ones - **Flying buttresses** – external arches that transfer the weight of the vaults to

the buttresses - **Large windows** with coloured stained glass filling the interiors with light - **Rose windows** – large circular windows with stained glass - **Tall, slender towers** with pinnacles

Decoration: - More naturalistic and expressive sculptures - Stained glass with religious scenes and vivid colours - Gargoyles (grotesque figures for water drainage)

Examples in Portugal: - **Alcobaça Monastery** – founded by Afonso Henriques, an example of Cistercian Gothic, characterised by simplicity and austerity - **Batalha Monastery** – ordered built by King João I to commemorate the victory at the Battle of Aljubarrota (1385), a masterpiece of Portuguese Gothic - **Carmo Convent (Lisbon)** – an important example of mendicant Gothic - **Évora Cathedral** – combines Romanesque and Gothic elements - **Church of Santa Maria da Vitória (Batalha)**

Specificities of Portuguese Gothic: - Influence of religious orders (Cistercians, mendicants) - Development of **Manueline Gothic** at the end of the period (reign of King Manuel I), with decoration inspired by the Discoveries (ropes, armillary spheres, crosses of Christ) - Adaptation to the Portuguese climate (less need for large windows for light)

2.18.4 Comparison between Romanesque and Gothic

Feature	Romanesque	Gothic
Walls	Thick, massive	Thin, with buttresses
Arches	Rounded (semicircular)	Pointed (ogival)
Vaults	Barrel or groin	Rib vaults
Windows	Small	Large, with stained glass
Lighting	Dark interior	Bright interior
Height	Lower buildings	Taller buildings
Decoration	Sober, stylised figures	Rich, naturalistic figures
Period	11th–12th centuries	12th–15th centuries

Measures to Reinforce Royal Power

- Inquiries (Inquirições)
- rigorous surveys to establish which lands belonged to the king and had been appropriated by lords
- Disentailment Laws
- laws to prevent the clergy from acquiring more land

In this way the king sought to reinforce his power over the privileged groups Organs of Central Power Royal Curia (Cúria Régia) made up of:

- Senior officials
- chief steward (administered finances)
- chief standard-bearer (commanded the army)

- chancellor (drafted written documents)
- other members of the high nobility and upper clergy

Properties

- Honours – Nobility
- Coutos – Clergy
- Royal estates (Reguengos)

Members of Municipalities

- large rural landowners
- wealthy merchants
- freemen (peões)

Products exported by Portugal

- wine
- olive oil
- cork
- dried fruits
- salt

Products imported by Portugal

- textiles
- iron
- weapons
- cereals

1. Opening to the world 1.1 Portuguese expansion Motivations

- **Political motivations**
- King João I → international affirmation of the power of the new dynasty
- **Economic motivations**
- bourgeoisie → new products and new markets
- nobility → lands and riches
- **Religious motivations**
- clergy → expansion of Christianity
- **Social motivations**
- nobility → titles
- people → better living conditions

Conditions

- **Political conditions**
- period of peace and political stability
- **Geographical conditions**

- proximity to the Atlantic islands and North Africa
- extensive coastline with good natural ports
- **Historical, social and scientific conditions**
- roots in peoples with knowledge of the art of navigation
- experience in sailing from fishing activities and maritime trade
- **Technical conditions**
- instruments of astronomical navigation (compass, quadrant, cross-staff, astrolabe)
- portolans and sea charts
- a new vessel, the caravel, with triangular sails that allowed sailing close to the wind (against contrary winds)

Beginning of Portuguese expansion

- **First Portuguese conquest**
- 1415 → Ceuta, in North Africa, near the Strait of Gibraltar
- **Reasons for this conquest**
- a region rich in cereals → a key point of arrival for caravan routes bringing gold from southern Africa
- a strategic point to control trade between the Atlantic Ocean and the Mediterranean Sea → weakening of Muslim piracy
- expansion of Christianity
- **What followed the conquest of Ceuta**
- due to frequent attacks on the city, the cultivated fields were abandoned
- the gold routes were diverted
- the defence of this territory became costly
- **Economic results of this conquest**
- brought little economic benefit due to high costs of defending against Muslim attacks and the diversion of trade routes

Directions of Portuguese expansion

- **Two positions about the direction of expansion to follow**
- nobility
- new expeditions in North Africa
- sought to obtain lands, revenues and titles
- bourgeoisie
- maritime exploration of the African coast
- sought to reach the places of origin of the most coveted products
- **The direction that prevailed**
- Voyages of discovery southwards

Rediscovery of Madeira and the Azores

- **Rediscovery of Madeira**
- 1419 → Porto Santo (João Gonçalves Zarco and Tristão Vaz Teixeira)

- 1420 → Island of Madeira (João Gonçalves Zarco, Tristão Vaz Teixeira and Bartolomeu Perestrelo)
- **Rediscovery of the Azores**
- 1427 → Santa Maria and São Miguel (Diogo de Silves)
- **Products exploited on Madeira**
- cereals, vines, dye plants and sugar
- **Products exploited in the Azores**
- cereals, dye plants and livestock
- **System of exploitation in the Atlantic archipelagos**
- captaincies, entrusted to donatary captains (nobles with administrative, judicial and military powers) to settle the lands and develop their exploitation

1st phase of African coast exploration – Henrican period

- **Main person responsible for the first maritime expeditions**
- Infante Henry, son of King João I
- **Important dates**
- 1434 → Rounding of Cape Bojador (Gil Eanes)
- 1460 → Reaching Sierra Leone (Pedro de Sintra)
- **Products exploited in Africa**
- slaves, gold, ivory and pepper
- **System of exploitation in Africa**
- trading posts (commercial entrepôts, usually fortified, managed by a royal official)

2nd phase of African coast exploration – Lease to Fernão Gomes

- **Policy of King Afonso V**
- military expeditions in North Africa
- **Important dates**
- 1458 → Conquest of Alcácer Ceguer
- 1471 → Conquest of Arzila and Tangier
- **Person responsible for maritime expeditions during the reign of Afonso V**
- Fernão Gomes, a wealthy Lisbon merchant
- **Lease contract**
- Fernão Gomes could trade in the lands he discovered
- in exchange:
- he paid a sum of money
- he was obliged to discover, southward, one hundred leagues of coast each year
- **Regions explored by Fernão Gomes**
- the entire Gulf of Guinea, including the Gold Coast, where considerable gold was obtained (trading post of São Jorge da Mina)
- 1474 → reaching Cape Saint Catherine

3rd phase of African coast exploration – Policy of King João II

- **Person responsible for maritime expeditions after Fernão Gomes**
- King João II, son of Afonso V
- **Expansionist policy of King João II**
- sought to reach India by sea
- **Important dates**
- 1482–1486 → exploration of the African coast south of Cape Saint Catherine (Diogo Cão) → 1487 → expedition to the East via the Mediterranean and the Red Sea to gather information on navigation and trade in the Indian Ocean (Pero da Covilhã and Afonso de Paiva)
- 1488 → rounding of the Cape of Good Hope (Bartolomeu Dias)

Portuguese-Castilian rivalry

- **Treaty of Alcáçovas**
- 1479 → Portugal and Castile disputed the possession of the Canary Islands and, to resolve this conflict, signed the Treaty of Alcáçovas
- it was established that Portugal would give up these territories but, in exchange, would have exclusive control of the territories south of those islands
- **Discovery of America**
- 1492 → Christopher Columbus, in the service of Castile, discovered America (reaching the Antilles) while trying to reach India via the West
- **Treaty of Tordesillas**
- 1494 → under the Treaty of Alcáçovas, those territories should have belonged to Portugal, giving rise to a new conflict, resolved with the Treaty of Tordesillas
- the division of the world into two parts was established, with reference to a meridian passing 370 leagues from Cape Verde:
- to the east of that meridian, lands discovered or to be discovered would belong to Portugal
- to the west, they would belong to Castile

Mare Clausum policy (closed sea)

- **Mare clausum**
- the establishment of two areas of geographical and economic exploitation, exclusive to Portugal and Castile, with other European countries having no access to them

Expansion under King Manuel I

- **Arrival in India**
- 1498 → arrival in India, at Calicut (Vasco da Gama)
- for the first time, Europe was connected by sea to Asia via the Cape Route
- **Discovery of Brazil**
- 1500 → a new fleet, under the command of Pedro Álvares Cabral, was sent to India to impose Portuguese dominion in the East. However, the ships were greatly deflected to the south-west and thus arrived in Brazil
- **Products exploited in India**
- spices, silks and perfumes

- **System of exploitation in the East**
- administration by viceroys and trading posts
- **Policy of Francisco de Almeida, first viceroy of India**
- dominion of the seas, demanding navigation licences from all ships sailing in the Indian Ocean
- **Policy of Afonso de Albuquerque, second viceroy of India**
- dominion of the seas and territorial conquest of strategic cities such as Hormuz, Goa and Malacca
- **Royal monopoly**
- trade in all merchandise was under direct control of the crown
- an official body was created in Lisbon, the Casa da Índia, which organised fleets, controlled trade between Portugal and the East and was where received merchandise was sold
- **Products exploited in Brazil**
- brazilwood, exotic birds and sugar
- **System of exploitation in Brazil (during the reign of King João III)**
- captaincies and, later, due to rivalries between the various donatary captains and difficulty resisting frequent attacks by indigenous peoples and the French, Tomé de Sousa was appointed first Governor-General of Brazil (1549)
- **Slave trade**
- the indigenous population did not adapt to the demands of labour in the sugar mills, leading to an intense slave trade from Africa to America, with enslaved people transported in inhumane conditions

1.2 The Spanish expansion Characteristics of the Spanish conquest and exploitation in Central and South America

- **Reasons for a rapid and violent conquest**
- surprise attacks
- military superiority (use of firearms)
- alliances with indigenous tribes
- **Main military leaders**
- Hernán Cortés → defeated the Aztecs in Mexico → Francisco Pizarro → defeated the Incas in Peru
- **Riches obtained**
- plundering of indigenous treasures
- exploitation of gold and silver mines
- **System of exploitation**
- administration by viceroys
- **Council of the Indies**
- a body in Spain that held the commercial monopoly of all American products traded at the Casa de Contratación in Seville, from where they were sold to the rest of Europe

Consequences for local populations

- **Decrease in the indigenous population**

- due to the violence of the conquest → due to the harshness of forced labour in the mines → due to diseases brought by the colonisers
- **Conversion to Christianity of a large part of the indigenous American populations**
- thanks to the activity of missionaries

1.3 Relations between Europeans and African, indigenous American and Asian civilisations Characteristics of the main civilisations of Africa, America and Asia at the arrival of Europeans

- **In Africa**
- most were gatherer and producer communities
- there were also some states, kingdoms and empires
- North Africa was Islamic; only the Kingdom of Ethiopia was Christian
- **In America**
- most were gatherer and producer communities
- the most advanced civilisations were the Mayans, Aztecs and Incas
- **In Asia**
- advanced and powerful civilisations
- great technical and urban development
- existence of kingdoms, principalities and great empires such as Persia and China
- main religions were Hinduism, Buddhism and Islam

How Europeans treated Africans and indigenous peoples

- **Subjugation of peoples**
- forced labour → slavery
- trafficking
- **Missionary work**
- mainly in America, Jesuit priests forced peoples to convert to Christianity, though they also developed education and defended these communities

Meeting of cultures

- **Acculturation**
- contact between different cultures
- **Assimilation**
- adoption of habits and attitudes from a culture while living in that environment
- **Mixed communities**
- the peoples most influenced by European culture were the indigenous Americans and Africans, especially in religion, language and customs, giving rise to mixed communities
- **Miscegenation**
- marriages between different peoples
- occurred in Asia, between Europeans and Indian women

1.4 The globalisation of trade The main world trade routes in the 16th century

- **The Cape Route**

- linked Europe (Lisbon) to Asia (India), going around the African continent
- **Far East routes**
- linked India to various parts of the Far East, such as Japan, China and the islands of present-day Indonesia
- **Atlantic routes**
- linked Lisbon to Africa and Brazil, and also Seville to Central America
- **Manila Route**
- extended through the East, from Manila to present-day Mexico

Centres of intercontinental trade in the 15th and 16th centuries

- **Main trading centres**
- Lisbon
- Seville
- **Importance of Antwerp**
- due to its favourable geographical location, products were distributed from Antwerp to Northern, Central and Southern Europe
- thanks to its importance, the Portuguese founded a trading post in Antwerp, which functioned as an extension of the Casa da Índia
- merchants and bankers flocked to this city in search of business opportunities
- **Other European trading centres**
- Venice, Genoa, Florence
- regions of Germany, England and France
- Development of the bourgeoisie
- **Enrichment of merchants and bankers**
- the large profits from colonial trade promoted the accumulation of capital, which enabled the formation of trading companies and the enrichment of great Italian, Flemish and German merchants and bankers

In Portugal, the bourgeoisie did not develop in the same way due to the royal monopoly policy. The phenomenon of globalisation

- **Globalisation**
- the process of bringing together the various societies and nations of the world in the economic, social, cultural or political sphere

Changes in European consumption and habits

- **New products and eating habits**
- from Africa → pepper, coffee
- from Asia → spices (cloves, nutmeg, pepper, cinnamon), tea
- from America → sugar, maize, pineapple, cocoa
- consumption of tomato, beans and banana also became widespread
- **New habits**
- the most privileged groups had refined furniture, ornaments, porcelain, precious stones, cloth-

ing in luxury fabrics, used Eastern perfumes and objects of ivory and African gold
- consumption of tobacco also became widespread

2.18.5 The Crises of the 14th Century

2.19 The Crises of the 14th Century

2.19.1 The European Crisis of the 14th Century

The 14th century was marked by a profound crisis that affected all of Europe. After a period of economic and demographic growth in the 12th and 13th centuries, Europe faced a series of calamities that radically transformed medieval society.

2.19.1.1 Causes of the Crisis

Agrarian crisis and famines: - At the beginning of the 14th century, a series of **poor agricultural years** caused food shortages - Intense and prolonged rains ruined successive harvests - The **Great Famine of 1315–1317** affected most of Europe, causing millions of deaths - The population had grown beyond the agricultural production capacity of the era

The Black Death (1347–1351): - The **Black Death** was the greatest demographic catastrophe in European history - It arrived in Europe in 1347, coming from Asia via trade routes - It spread rapidly due to lack of hygiene and ignorance about the disease - **About one third of the European population died** (estimates range from 30% to 60%) - Symptoms included high fevers, buboes (swellings) in the armpits and groin, and black patches on the skin - The disease was transmitted by rat fleas and also through the air (pneumonic form)

Wars and conflicts: - The **Hundred Years' War (1337–1453)** between France and England devastated extensive regions - Constant conflicts between kingdoms and feudal lords - Pillaging and destruction of agricultural fields - Widespread political instability

2.19.1.2 Consequences of the Crisis

Demographic consequences: - **Demographic collapse** — the European population decreased drastically - Entire villages were abandoned (deserted villages) - Shortage of labour to work the fields

Economic consequences: - **Economic crisis** — reduction in agricultural and artisanal production - Rising food prices - Increase in workers' wages (due to labour scarcity) - Abandonment of cultivated land - Decline of trade

Social consequences: - Peasant revolts in various European countries - Tensions between lords and peasants - Persecution of minorities (Jews were accused of poisoning wells) - Flagellants — groups who publicly flogged themselves as penance

Political consequences: - Weakening of seigneurial power - Strengthening of royal power in some kingdoms - Dynastic crises in various countries

2.19.2 The Crisis in Portugal

Portugal did not escape the crises of the 14th century. In the second half of the century, the kingdom lived through particularly difficult times:

The calamities: - **Famine** — caused by poor agricultural years due to heavy rains - **Epidemics** — caused by lack of hygiene and inadequate nutrition - **Wars** — due to conflict with Castile

The worst calamity was the **Black Death**, which arrived in Portugal in 1348. In less than three months it killed about one third of the Portuguese population.

The Fernandine Wars (1369–1382):

The reign of King Fernando (1367–1383) was marked by three wars against Castile, known as the **Fernandine Wars**. These wars were part of the broader context of the **Hundred Years' War**, in which Portugal allied itself at times with England and at other times with Castile.

- **1st War (1369–1370)** — King Fernando claimed the throne of Castile
- **2nd War (1372–1373)** — Castile invaded Portugal; Lisbon was besieged
- **3rd War (1381–1382)** — New alliance with England against Castile

These wars: - Devastated Portuguese territory - Worsened the economic crisis - Weakened the kingdom - Created political instability

2.19.3 The Revolution of 1383–1385

2.19.3.1 Succession Problem

In 1383, King Fernando signed a peace treaty with Castile to safeguard the independence of the Kingdom of Portugal — the Treaty of Salvaterra de Magos. In this treaty King Fernando gave his only daughter, Dona Beatriz, in marriage to King João I of Castile, and it was established that the future king of Portugal would be her son, when he reached 14 years of age.

2.19.3.2 The Divided Population and the Popular Revolt

When King Fernando died, Dona Leonor de Teles, his wife, assumed the regency of the kingdom and proclaimed Dona Beatriz as queen of Portugal. The people were discontented because they did not want to be governed by a foreign king and feared that Portugal would lose its independence.

- Supporters of Dona Beatriz — upper Clergy and high Nobility because they feared losing their privileges;
- Supporters of João, Master of Avis — the common people, bourgeoisie, part of the Clergy and part of the Nobility, because they did not want to be governed by a foreign king and feared that Portugal would lose its independence.

Álvaro Pais planned a conspiracy to kill the Galician adviser of Dona Leonor de Teles, Count Andeiro. João, Master of Avis, illegitimate son of King Pedro, was chosen to kill him. After the death of Count Andeiro, Dona Leonor de Teles fled to Santarém and asked King João I of Castile

for help. The Master of Avis became Regent and Defender of the kingdom with the support of the people.

2.19.3.3 Resistance to the Castilian Invasion

King João I of Castile invaded Portugal:

- he occupied Santarém;
- he was defeated at the Battle of Atoleiros;
- he besieged Lisbon in 1384.

Lisbon was besieged for 3 months and was only freed when the Black Death struck the Castilian soldiers. At the Cortes in Coimbra (1385), João das Regras proved that João, Master of Avis, had the greatest right to be king of Portugal, and he was henceforth styled D. João I. Upon learning of the acclamation of the Master of Avis as king of Portugal, King João I of Castile invaded Portugal again but was defeated at the Battle of Aljubarrota (1385) by the Portuguese led by Nuno Álvares Pereira.

2.19.3.4 Consolidation of Independence

King João I, Master of Avis, rewarded with lands, offices and titles the nobles and bourgeoisie who had supported him, and stripped privileges from the high Nobility who had supported Dona Beatriz and fled to Castile. Portugal also concluded a treaty of friendship with England in which both countries pledged to help each other. This alliance was reinforced by the marriage of King João I to Dona Filipa de Lencastre in 1387. The dispute with Castile was only resolved in 1411 with a peace treaty. Much of what we know about this period is thanks to Fernão Lopes, through his chronicles about events in the kingdom at that time.

2.20 Chapter 4: 15th–16th Centuries — The Age of Discoveries

The 15th century opens a new era: driven by Prince Henry the Navigator and technical advances in navigation, the Portuguese set out to explore the Atlantic and the African coast. The arrival in India in 1498 and in Brazil in 1500 inaugurates the first global maritime empire. In Europe, the Renaissance renews the arts, sciences and thought, while the Protestant Reformation fractures the continent's religious unity. Portugal accompanies these transformations with Manueline art and the splendour of its Empire.

2.20.1 From Portugal to the Atlantic Islands and the Cape of Good Hope

2.20.1.1 The sea route

At the beginning of the 15th century, Europe lived in isolation from the rest of the world. Beyond Europe, only Asia and northern Africa were known. At this time, Portugal was a poor kingdom. Nevertheless, it was at peace and felt the need to expand its territories. The Portuguese could not expand into Castilian territory without risking war with Castile, so they decided to find new territories by sea.

The search for new lands interested all social groups:

- the bourgeoisie sought wealth and new markets
- the nobility wanted new titles and lands
- the clergy wished to convert other peoples to Christianity
- the common people desired better living conditions

Beginning of Portuguese expansion In 1415, Portugal conquered Ceuta in northern Africa, with the desire to obtain gold and dominate trade in the Mediterranean Sea. However, the Moors, having lost Ceuta, redirected the gold and spice routes through other cities. To obtain the riches they so desired, the Portuguese had to discover the origin of the products that the Moors traded — but to do this, they had to venture into unknown lands.

Merchants and adventurers had created various legends about the unknown world. It was believed that ships sailing south along the African coast would be attacked by sea monsters, and that the heat was so great that white men would turn black. It was also imagined that in unknown lands there were marvellous and fantastic beings: strange animals and men without heads, with only one leg, or only one eye.

The Portuguese, adventurous and courageous, decided to face their fears of the unknown world and sailed south along the African coast into regions entirely unknown to Europeans. Prince Henry was the one who planned and organised these voyages and was responsible for the Discoveries up to the arrival at Sierra Leone in 1460.

1st Phase of the Discoveries — Most important events in the era of Prince Henry:

- 1415 — Conquest of Ceuta — King João I with his sons Duarte, Pedro and Henrique
- 1419 — Rediscovery of the Madeira archipelago — João Gonçalves Zarco and Tristão Vaz Teixeira
- 1424 — Discovery of the Azores archipelago — Diogo de Silves
- 1434 — Rounding of Cape Bojador — Gil Eanes
- 1460 — Arrival at Sierra Leone — Pedro de Cintra

Navigation techniques When sailing on the high seas, navigators oriented themselves by the stars (Pole Star and Sun), using for this purpose the quadrant, the astrolabe and the cross-staff. The caravel came into use — an innovative ship with triangular sails that allowed it to sail into the wind (to tack). Nautical charts began to be drawn with newly discovered lands and information

about winds, to facilitate future voyages. In this way, the maritime voyages made by the Portuguese contributed to the development of navigation techniques, cartography, astronomy and mathematics.

From Sierra Leone to the Cape of Santa Catarina After the death of Prince Henry, King Afonso V entrusted the merchant Fernão Gomes with the continuation of discoveries along the African coast. In exchange, Fernão Gomes had the right to trade in the lands he discovered.

2nd Phase of the Discoveries — Most important events in the era of Fernão Gomes:

- 1471 — Discovery of the islands of São Tomé and Príncipe
- 1474 — Arrival at Cape Santa Catarina

From Cape Santa Catarina to the Cape of Good Hope In 1474, Prince João took over the direction of the discoveries because the lands discovered held great riches such as gold, ivory and slaves. In 1488 he ascended the throne and ordered that in newly discovered lands stone markers be placed (a stone pillar engraved with a cross, the royal arms and the date of erection). He also ordered the sinking of ships from other kingdoms found south of the Canary Islands. It was in his time that the southern limit of the African continent and the passage to the Indian Ocean were discovered.

3rd Phase of the Discoveries — Most important events in the era of King João II:

- 1480 — Treaty of Alcáçovas
- 1482 — Arrival at the mouth of the River Zaire
- 1488 — Rounding of the Cape of Good Hope — Bartolomeu Dias

Treaty of Tordesillas The great desire of King João II was to reach India by sea, for the sake of the spice trade. However, Castile had the same desire. In 1492, Christopher Columbus, in the service of Castile, reached America while seeking to reach India by sailing west. This discovery created a conflict between Portugal and Castile because, according to the Treaty of Alcáçovas signed in 1480, lands south of the Canary Islands belonged to Portugal. As such, the lands discovered by Christopher Columbus should have belonged to Portugal. To resolve this conflict, papal intervention was required, which led the monarchs of both kingdoms to sign a new agreement — the **Treaty of Tordesillas**. According to this treaty, the world was divided into two halves by a meridian passing 370 leagues west of Cape Verde. Lands discovered to the east would belong to Portugal, and lands to the west would belong to Castile.

2.20.2 Arrival in India and Brazil

2.20.2.1 Arrival in India

King João II did not live to see his dream fulfilled. After his death, his cousin King Manuel I succeeded him and decided to continue the discoveries. In 1497 he appointed Vasco da Gama as commander of a fleet of four ships: the naus São Gabriel, São Rafael and Bérrio, plus a supply vessel. The objective of this fleet was to reach India by sea. The voyage lasted a year and in May 1498 the Portuguese arrived at Calicut.

2.20.2.2 Discovery of Brazil

When Vasco da Gama reached India, the Portuguese were initially well received. However, hostilities began to emerge and, to secure Portuguese dominance, a fleet departed from Portugal in March 1500. This new fleet, commanded by Pedro Álvares Cabral, comprised thirteen ships. A westward detour led the Portuguese to discover Brazil.

2.20.3 The Portuguese Empire in the 16th Century

By the end of the 16th century, Portugal possessed an empire of great extent, with territories in Africa, Asia and America, as well as the Atlantic islands.

The Madeira and Azores archipelagos The Madeira and Azores archipelagos were very important because vessels heading to Africa and India would stop at these islands to take on fresh supplies. In Madeira, trees predominated — hence its name. In the Azores, many birds of the hawk (*açor*) family were found.

Territories in Africa The Portuguese encountered dark-skinned peoples below the Sahara Desert. These peoples lived from the exploitation of available natural resources: they hunted, raised animals, fished, gathered fruit, cultivated yams (sweet potatoes) and worked certain minerals such as gold and copper, which they exchanged for other goods. The Portuguese traded with the Africans, offering salt, wheat, copper and brass objects and colourful low-value textiles, in exchange for gold, slaves, ivory and malagueta pepper. In places with good natural harbours and more intense commerce, the Portuguese established trading posts (feitorias).

Territories in Asia In Asia, the Portuguese conquered Goa, Malacca and Hormuz, and in the Far East reached the Moluccas, the coast of China, Guangzhou (Canton), Timor, Japan and Macau. The Portuguese traded with the Asians, carrying to the East vermilion, copper, silver and gold, receiving in exchange spices, precious stones, porcelain, perfumes, silks and timber.

Territories in America The Brazilian Indians lived in a simple way in close relationship with nature. They hunted, fished and cultivated manioc. Initially the Portuguese went to Brazil only to bring back brazilwood and exotic birds. In 1530, colonisation began. The king divided the land into capitaincies, just as in the Madeira and Azores archipelagos.

16th-century Lisbon In the 16th century, Lisbon was one of the most important cities in Europe due to the arrival of merchandise from the Orient, Africa and Brazil, which was then distributed to central and northern Europe. Culture flourished: Luís de Camões wrote *Os Lusíadas*; Pedro Nunes advanced mathematics; Garcia de Orta and Amato Lusitano advanced medicine.

Manueline Art The **Manueline style** in architecture combined Gothic structural elements with decoration evoking the Discoveries: naturalistic motifs (trunks, roots and foliage), maritime imagery (ropes, buoys, shells, nets) and national emblems (Cross of Christ, royal shield and armillary sphere). Major works include the Jerónimos Monastery, the Tower of Belém and the Convent of Christ (Tomar).

2.20.4 The Renaissance and Renaissance Art

The Renaissance was a movement of cultural renewal inspired by classical (Graeco-Roman) culture, which emerged in Italy in the 15th century. It received this name because it was considered a "rebirth" of classical culture.

Why did it emerge in Italy? - Rivalry between city-states that wanted the best palaces, churches, artists and thinkers - Prosperity from trade that enabled patronage (mecenato) of culture - Abundance of Graeco-Roman artistic remains - Libraries with copies of ancient works and universities that studied them

New values: - **Classicism** — inspiration from Graeco-Roman culture - **Anthropocentrism** — Man placed at the centre of human concerns - **Individualism** — Personal affirmation of each individual and recognition of his achievements - **Humanism** — a literary and philosophical movement that valued Man; humanists were intellectuals who studied ancient authors and, thanks to their critical spirit, expanded knowledge in various fields

Key figures of the Renaissance: - Nicolaus Copernicus (heliocentric model) — Astronomy; André Vesalius and Leonardo da Vinci — Anatomy; William Shakespeare, Miguel de Cervantes, Luís de Camões — Literature; Gutenberg — invention of the printing press

Renaissance architecture: inspired by classical architecture — Doric, Ionic and Corinthian orders, round arch, barrel vault, dome and pediment; equilibrium, symmetry and horizontality. Major architects: Brunelleschi, Bramante, Michelangelo.

Renaissance sculpture: inspired by classical sculpture; representation of the human figure; harmony, realism and naturalism. Major sculptor: Michelangelo (David, Pietà).

Renaissance painting: oil painting / sfumato technique; perspective; naturalism and realism; themes include religious scenes, classical mythology, daily life and portraiture. Major painters: Leonardo da Vinci, Michelangelo, Raphael, Titian, Van Eyck.

2.20.5 The Reformation and Counter-Reformation

The Catholic Church in the 16th century Up to the 16th century, the Catholic Church completely dominated European society. However, many members of the upper clergy lived in luxury and opulence, corruption and immorality were frequent, and some humanists began to criticise the Church and call for a return to its original purity.

The Ninety-Five Theses of Martin Luther In 1517, Martin Luther, a German monk, condemned indulgences through his 95 Theses. He was excommunicated but escaped the stake because he was protected by German princes.

The Protestant Reformation — Main churches: - **Lutheran Church (Germany):** Man achieves salvation through faith alone; free interpretation of the Bible; reduced the 7 sacraments to 2; abolished celibacy; defended church without property - **Calvinist Church (Switzerland, Holland, Scotland, France):** Doctrine of predestination — Man is destined or not for salvation

from birth - **Anglican Church (England):** Sought to reconcile Catholic and Lutheran principles; founded by King Henry VIII who made himself supreme head of the Church

The Catholic Reaction — Counter-Reformation At the Council of Trent, bishops and cardinals refused Protestant proposals and reaffirmed Catholic doctrine, but sought to reform clergy behaviour. To halt the spread of Protestant ideas, three instruments were created: - The **Society of Jesus** (Jesuits) — defended Catholicism and promoted its spread through missions, preaching and teaching - The **Index** — list of books whose reading was forbidden - The **Inquisition** — tribunal that persecuted all suspected of practising other religions

In Portugal, Jews were expelled by King Manuel; those who remained and accepted baptism were called **New Christians** (*cristãos-novos*) but continued to be persecuted and condemned in public ceremonies called *autos-de-fé*.

2.21 Chapter 5: 17th Century — Philippine Rule and Restoration

The 17th century is dominated by the question of Portuguese sovereignty. After the death of King Sebastião at Alcácer-Quibir (1578) and the ensuing dynastic crisis, Portugal entered the Iberian Union under the Spanish Philipps (1580–1640). Sixty years of Spanish rule brought losses to the colonial empire and popular discontent, culminating in the Restoration of Independence in 1640 with the acclamation of King João IV. It is also the century of the Ancien Régime and Baroque art.

2.21.1 The Philippine Rule and the Restoration of Independence

The Iberian Union (1580) At the Cortes in Almeirim, Philip II of Spain was acclaimed king of Portugal. At the Battle of Alcântara, Dom António, supported by the people, faced Philip II's army but was defeated and fled, first to the Azores and then to England. At the Cortes of Tomar, Philip II of Spain swore the oath as king of Portugal, was styled D. Filipe I, king of Portugal, and made several promises, including:

- Maintaining Portuguese currency, language and customs
- Government posts in Portugal only for Portuguese subjects

King Philip I kept most of his promises, but his successors Philip II and Philip III did not respect the promises made to the Portuguese. The situation worsened as Spain went to war against Holland, France and England, and revolts broke out within Spain itself. This had consequences for Portugal:

- Increased taxes
- Portuguese soldiers in the Spanish army
- Spaniards appointed to posts in Portugal
- Attacks by Spain's enemies on Portuguese colonies

Popular revolts arose but were rapidly and violently suppressed by the Spanish army.

The Revolt of 1 December and the War of Restoration The Iberian Union, which lasted 60 years, ended up causing various losses to Portugal. Popular revolt was joined by discontent among the nobility, greatly harmed during this period.

On **1 December 1640**, a group of nobles took advantage of Spain's weakness and the king's absence from Portugal to organise a conspiracy. They successfully killed the viceroy of Portugal, the Duchess of Mantua, and proclaimed the Restoration of Independence. At the Cortes in Lisbon, the Duke of Bragança was acclaimed king of Portugal as **D. João IV**.

War of Restoration King João IV organised the army, manufactured weapons and built fortresses along the frontiers with Spain. For 28 years Portugal was at war with Spain, a conflict that ended only with the Treaty of Madrid, signed in 1668.

2.21.2 The Ancien Régime

The concept of Ancien Régime The term *Ancien Régime* (Old Regime) designates the political and social system that prevailed during the 17th and 18th centuries.

Characteristics: - **Absolute royal power** — the king concentrated all powers in himself; his power was of divine origin; Louis XIV of France was the greatest example and other kings sought to imitate his way of life (luxury and ostentation) - **Tripartite society of orders:** - *Clergy* — privileged group; paid no taxes; received tithes; had their own courts - *Nobility* — privileged group; paid no taxes; occupied the principal offices at court, in the army and in the Church - *Third Estate* — non-privileged; bourgeois (merchants), peasants, artisans, servants; paid taxes to the king, the clergy and the nobility; artisans and peasants lived in misery; some bourgeois enriched themselves, gained prestige and were integrated into the *noblesse de robe* (gaining access to administrative and judicial posts) - **Economy essentially agricultural**, but enlivened by commercial activities; international trade was the most profitable activity; **Mercantilist policy** — a state's power depends on its monetary reserves and it must export more than it imports

2.21.3 Baroque Art and Great Constructions

Part of the wealth obtained from Brazilian gold was spent on the construction of great palaces and convents.

By royal initiative: - Aqueduto das Águas Livres (Lisbon aqueduct) - Palace and Convent of Mafra - Chapel of São João Baptista

Baroque style characteristics: - Grandeur - Covering in gilded woodwork (*talha dourada*), tiles (*azulejo*) and marble - Abundant decoration with curves - Abundance of statues

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2.22 Chapter 6: 18th Century — Enlightenment and Absolutism

The 18th century is the Age of Enlightenment. In Europe, Enlightenment philosophers questioned absolute power and defended reason, liberty and equality. In Portugal, King João V benefited from the wealth of Brazilian gold and governed as an absolute monarch. After the earthquake of 1755, the Marquis of Pombal rebuilt Lisbon and modernised the state. The century closes with the French Revolution (1789), which would shake the entire European order, and with the independence of the United States of America.

2.22.1 The Portuguese Colonial Empire in the 18th Century

In the 18th century the Portuguese Empire comprised: - **In Asia:** Damão, Diu and Goa in India, and also Macau and Timor - **In Africa:** Cape Verde, Guinea, São Tomé and Príncipe, Angola and Mozambique - **In America:** Brazil

Brazil Portugal no longer derived great profits from trade with the Orient (India) due to competition from the English, French and Dutch, so it focused more on exploiting Brazil. The warm, humid climate allowed large quantities of sugarcane to be cultivated. Beyond sugar, Brazil became very important due to the discovery of gold and precious stones. *Bandeirantes* were people who went into the interior of Brazil seeking gold, precious stones and Indians to enslave; they founded towns and settlements that extended Brazil's frontiers beyond the Tordesillas line. The triangular trade developed between three continents: Europe, America and Africa.

2.22.2 The Government of King João V

The discovery of gold and precious stones in Brazil brought great wealth to Portugal. King João V became one of the richest monarchs in Europe and concentrated all powers in himself, governing as an absolute monarch. The court lived in luxury and ostentation — balls, theatre, concerts, banquets and processions displayed the king's wealth. The *cristãos-novos* (New Christians) continued to be persecuted by the Inquisition, with its *autos-de-fé* (public burnings).

2.22.3 Pombaline Lisbon

Government of King José I In 1750, King José I came to the throne and appointed Sebastião José de Carvalho e Melo, the future Marquis of Pombal, as his minister.

The Earthquake of 1755 Lisbon was virtually destroyed by the earthquake of 1755: - Around 10,000 people died - Most buildings were in ruins - Many treasures — books, manuscripts, paintings, gold and silver objects — were lost

Pombal's response: He ordered the dead buried and the wounded tended; he had streets and key buildings policed to prevent looting; he charged engineers Manuel da Maia and Eugénio dos Santos with a reconstruction plan for the lower city.

Characteristics of the new Lisbon (Baixa Pombalina): - Wide streets; paved pavements; geometric layout - Buildings of equal height with identical facades, equipped with an anti-seismic timber framework - Sewage network

Pombaline Reforms Portugal faced severe economic crisis: foreign competition hampered trade; agriculture and industry were insufficient; diminishing gold from Brazil reduced import capacity; the 1755 earthquake worsened the situation. Pombal's reforms: - *Economic:* developed industry by supporting existing and creating new factories; created trading companies - *Political and social:* curtailed Nobility power; reduced Church power and expelled the Jesuits; protected the Bourgeoisie; abolished slavery in the kingdom (though it continued in the colonies) - *Educational:* created primary schools; reformed the University of Coimbra; abolished the Jesuit-controlled University of Évora

2.22.4 The Enlightenment

What was the Enlightenment? The Enlightenment was a cultural movement that arose in the 18th century, valuing Man as a rational and enlightened being. It defended economic freedom and political liberalism — Man should be illuminated by reason-based knowledge to emerge from the darkness of ignorance and be free.

Principal Enlightenment thinkers: - John Locke (father of the Enlightenment) - Voltaire (defended religious tolerance) - Immanuel Kant (philosopher who exalted the power of reason) - Marquis de Condorcet (defended universal education) - Montesquieu (defended separation of powers) - Jean-Jacques Rousseau (defended popular sovereignty)

Diffusion of new ideas: through the Encyclopaedia, newspapers, coffee houses, academies and Masonic lodges.

New political doctrines: - *Enlightened despotism* — some absolute monarchs were receptive to Enlightenment proposals and exercised reformist political power while retaining absolute power - *Political liberalism* — advocates a parliamentary system with separation of powers: Legislative (elected deputies make the laws), Executive (king and ministers apply the laws), Judicial (judges rule on those who break the laws); the people are sovereign; individual rights are respected; there is freedom and equality

2.22.5 The French Revolution

Causes of the Revolution France in the second half of the 18th century lived under the *Ancien Régime*, which caused great discontent: - **Unequal society of orders:** 1st Estate (Clergy) and 2nd Estate (Nobility) paid no taxes, while the 3rd Estate (the People — about 97% of the population) bore the entire tax burden - **Financial crisis:** Wars (including support for American independence), the expenses of Versailles and mismanagement brought France to the brink of bankruptcy - **Influence of the Enlightenment:** Ideas of Voltaire, Montesquieu and Rousseau inspired the population to question absolute power and privilege - **Famine and misery:** Poor harvests in 1788 caused a serious food crisis, with rising bread prices

Phases of the Revolution:

1st Phase — Estates-General and start of the Revolution (1789) In May 1789, King Louis XVI convened the Estates-General to resolve the financial crisis. The Third Estate demanded voting by head (not by order). When the king refused, the Third Estate's deputies formed the **National Constituent Assembly**, swearing not to separate until France had a constitution (*Tennis Court Oath*). On **14 July 1789**, the people of Paris stormed the Bastille, a fortress-prison symbolising absolute power — this date became the symbol of the Revolution. In August 1789, the Assembly approved the **Declaration of the Rights of Man and of the Citizen**: all men are born free and equal; natural rights are liberty, property, security and resistance to oppression; sovereignty resides in the nation; separation of powers.

2nd Phase — Constitutional Monarchy (1791–1792) A constitution established a constitutional monarchy. Louis XVI's attempted flight was foiled (*Flight to Varennes*), increasing popular distrust. Austria and Prussia declared war on France — the **Revolutionary Wars**.

3rd Phase — The Republic and the Terror (1792–1794) The monarchy was abolished and the **French Republic** was proclaimed. Louis XVI was guillotined in January 1793. The **Jacobins** under Robespierre installed the **Reign of Terror** (1793–1794): thousands executed as enemies of the revolution. Robespierre himself was executed in July 1794, ending the Terror.

4th Phase — The Directory and the rise of Napoleon (1795–1799) The more moderate **Directory** governed France until 1799. In 1799, General **Napoleon Bonaparte** staged a coup and assumed power.

The Napoleonic Empire Napoleon governed first as consul, then from 1804 as emperor. He dominated much of Europe, spreading revolutionary ideals (equality before the law, end of feudal privileges, civil code). To weaken England, his main rival, Napoleon ordered the **Continental Blockade** (1806): all European ports were to be closed to British trade.

Importance of the French Revolution: - Ended absolute monarchy and the feudal system in France - Spread the ideals of **liberty, equality and fraternity** across Europe and the world - The Declaration of Rights became the basis of modern human rights - Inspired liberal and revolutionary movements in Portugal, Brazil and many other countries in the 19th century

Repercussions in Portugal Portugal, as a longtime ally of England, was slow to join Napoleon's Continental Blockade. When the Prince Regent finally agreed to join the blockade, France and Spain (its ally) had already decided to invade Portugal. The royal family, fearing capture by French troops, departed for Brazil in 1807, and a Junta of Regency was created to govern Portugal.

2.22.6 Independence of the United States of America

In 1776, thirteen British colonies on the eastern coast of North America declared independence. A prosperous and entrepreneurial bourgeoisie opposed the colonial monopoly that prevented trade with other countries. The situation worsened when the mother country imposed new customs duties on sugar, tea and stamped paper. In 1775, the representatives of the thirteen colonies resolved to create an army to resist British domination, and in 1776 a congress in Philadelphia proclaimed independence. In 1783, Washington's army prevailed over the British. In 1787, the **Constitution**

of 1787 established the United States of America as a federal republic — each State retained its autonomy but there was a central government to handle common matters. For the first time, a colony had become independent, and a democratic regime based on Enlightenment ideals was established.

2.23 Chapter 7: 19th Century — Revolutions and Modernisation

The 19th century is an era of profound transformation. The Napoleonic invasions shake Portugal and lead to the flight of the court to Brazil. The Liberal Revolution of 1820, the independence of Brazil and the civil war between Liberals and Absolutists redefine the country. In the second half of the century, the Regeneration and Fontismo modernise infrastructure and education. In Europe, the Industrial Revolution transforms economy and society. European imperialism extends into Africa and Asia, but the British Ultimatum of 1890 humiliates Portugal and fuels the discontent that will lead to the fall of the monarchy.

2.23.1 The French Invasions of Portugal

1st French invasion (1807) — Commander: Junot He installed himself in Lisbon, ordered the Portuguese flag replaced with the French flag on the Castle of São Jorge, abolished the Junta of Regency and began to govern Portugal himself. During the French invasion, crops were destroyed, people were killed and anything of value was looted.

Portuguese reaction: Resistance movements were created by the people and help was requested from the English. The Anglo-Portuguese army defeated the French at the Battles of Roliça and Vimeiro. Junot signed the Convention of Sintra and abandoned Portugal.

2nd French invasion (1809) — Commander: Soult He entered through Trás-os-Montes, reached Porto but encountered strong resistance and retreated to Galicia.

3rd French invasion (1810) — Commander: Masséna His army suffered heavy losses at the Battle of Buçaco but still attempted to reach Lisbon at all costs. However, it was halted by the defensive Lines of Torres Vedras — a system of fortifications and cannons built by the British to protect Lisbon. Masséna was forced to abandon the campaign and retreat definitively.

2.23.2 The Liberal Revolution of 1820

Situation of Portugal after the French invasions The population was deeply discontented: - The royal family remained in Brazil with no intention of returning - The kingdom was poor and disorganised - The English had not left Portugal and controlled trade with Brazil, harming Portuguese merchants

The Liberal Revolution In 1818, a secret society called the *Sinédrio* was founded in Porto with the aim of preparing a revolution to expel the English and order the king to return from Brazil. In 1820, the Liberal Revolution began in Porto and spread throughout the country. The **Constituent Cortes** were created, which drafted the **Constitution of 1822**, establishing that all citizens were equal before the law and enshrining separation of powers. Portugal became a constitutional monarchy.

2.23.3 Independence of Brazil

Context During the royal family's stay in Brazil (1808–1821), the territory underwent profound transformations: - **Opening of the ports** (1808): King João opened Brazilian ports to all friendly nations, breaking Portugal's commercial monopoly - **Economic and cultural development:** Rio de Janeiro became the capital of the Portuguese empire; the Bank of Brazil, higher education institutions, the Royal Press, the Botanical Garden and the Royal Library were created - **Elevation to kingdom** (1815): Brazil was elevated to a kingdom within the United Kingdom of Portugal, Brazil and the Algarves

Return of King João VI and political tension After the Liberal Revolution of 1820, the Constituent Cortes demanded the king's return. King João VI returned to Portugal in 1821, leaving his son Dom Pedro as prince regent of Brazil. The Cortes attempted to reverse Brazil's gains — ordering Dom Pedro's return and reestablishing commercial monopoly — causing great revolt among Brazilians.

The declaration of independence On 9 January 1822, Dom Pedro declared: *"If it is for the good of all and the general happiness of the nation, tell the people I will stay"* — the **Dia do Fico**. On **7 September 1822**, at the river Ipiranga in São Paulo, Dom Pedro proclaimed independence — the **Grito do Ipiranga**: *"Independence or death!"* Dom Pedro was acclaimed as Emperor Pedro I of Brazil. Portugal recognised Brazilian independence in 1825 following British mediation.

Consequences: Portugal lost its largest and richest colony; the independence inspired other emancipation movements in Latin America.

2.23.4 The Struggle Between Liberals and Absolutists

Two opposing visions for Portugal - Liberals: Defended the Constitution, separation of powers, individual rights and a constitutional monarchy; supported by the bourgeoisie, intellectuals and much of the urban population - **Absolutists:** Defended a return to absolute monarchy; supported by the high nobility and much of the clergy

The Constitutional Charter of 1826 When King João VI died in 1826, King Pedro (emperor of Brazil) inherited the Portuguese throne but, not wishing to leave Brazil, he granted the **Constitutional Charter of 1826** — a more moderate document than the 1822 Constitution, giving the king a "moderating power" — and abdicated in favour of his daughter **Dona Maria da Glória** (aged 7), with his brother **Dom Miguel** as regent.

Dom Miguel's absolutist coup Dom Miguel swore to govern by the Charter, but in 1828 he dissolved the Cortes and had himself acclaimed absolute king, violently persecuting liberals — many were imprisoned, tortured or driven into exile.

The Civil War (1832–1834) In 1831, Dom Pedro abdicated the Brazilian throne and committed himself to restoring his daughter's rights. He gathered with exiled liberals in the Azores and organised a military expedition. - **1832:** Dom Pedro landed at Mindelo near Porto and occupied the city — the **Siege of Porto** began, with Miguelite forces besieging the city for over a year, but the liberals held out - **1833:** A liberal expedition under the Duke of Terceira sailed to the Algarve and advanced to Lisbon, taking the capital - **1834:** Following military defeats, Dom Miguel signed the **Convention of Évora Monte** (May 1834) and went into exile

Consequences: Liberalism triumphed and was definitively established in Portugal; Queen Maria II reigned; religious orders were abolished, their assets nationalised, tithes abolished; the country was left economically ruined and socially divided.

2.23.5 The Regeneration

At the beginning of the second half of the 19th century, Portugal was poor and disorganised, mainly due to three events: the Napoleonic invasions, the civil war between liberals and absolutists, and the independence of Brazil. In **1851** the **Regeneration** movement began, seeking a national renaissance. Various measures were taken to develop economic activities and modernise the country.

Agricultural development: Abolition of *morgadio* (entail); redistribution of land from nobles and clergy to the bourgeoisie; transfer of *baldios* (common lands) to peasants; new techniques: chemical fertilisers, selected seeds, crop rotation, mechanical threshers; new crops: potato and rice.

Industrial development: Introduction of the steam engine in industry significantly increased production. Artisanal production gave way to industrial production. Most factories concentrated in the coastal zones — Porto/Guimarães area (textiles and footwear) and Lisbon/Setúbal area (chemical and metallurgical industries). Mining was also developed for raw materials (copper, iron) and fuel (coal).

2.23.6 Fontismo

What was Fontismo? To promote the development of agriculture, commerce and industry, a good transport and communications network was essential. In 1852, the **Ministry of Public Works** was created, directed by **Fontes Pereira de Melo**. This policy of public works construction became known as **Fontismo** after its main driving force. His motto: *"Build roads, railways and schools."*

Development of transport: - *Railways:* First train journey in **1856**, between Lisbon and Carregado; **1863** — Lisbon-Porto link; **1887** — direct Lisbon-Madrid-Paris connection, bringing Portugal closer to the heart of Europe - *Roads:* Renovation and construction of new roads; key bridges include the Ponte D. Luís I in Porto (1886) and the Ponte D. Maria Pia, also in Porto, designed by Gustave Eiffel (1877) - *Maritime ports and lighthouses:* Construction of lighthouses; improvement

of ports, especially Lisbon and Leixões; steam-powered ships first on the River Tagus, then on the Lisbon-Porto route, later to the Azores and Madeira

Development of communications: - The postal service was modernised, with the first adhesive stamp, the postcard and the first pillar-boxes - **Telegraph** (1857 — first Lisbon-Porto telegraphic link), enabling rapid long-distance communication - **Telephone** arrived in Portugal in **1882**, installed first in Lisbon

Consequences of Fontismo: - *Positive:* modernisation and greater integration with Europe; greater mobility of people and goods; development of internal and external trade - *Negative:* Public works were largely financed by **foreign loans**, significantly increasing Portugal's external debt; development concentrated on the coast, worsening regional inequalities; costs far exceeded predictions, contributing to the financial crisis of later decades

2.23.7 Modernisation of Education

In the early second half of the 19th century, about **80% of the Portuguese population was illiterate**. Measures taken: - *Primary education:* New primary schools for boys and girls; compulsory attendance for first 3 years; new teachers trained in *escolas normais* - *Secondary education (lyceal):* New *liceus* in all district capitals and two in Lisbon - *Technical and vocational education:* Industrial, commercial and agricultural schools for skilled workers - *University and higher education:* New schools for the Navy, Arts, Technical fields and Theatre

Results were modest: illiteracy remained above 70% at century's end, one of the highest in Europe — but reforms laid the foundations for the expansion of education during the First Republic.

2.23.8 Human Rights

Advances in Portugal in the 19th century:

- **Abolition of the death penalty:**
  - **1852** — abolished for political crimes; Portugal was among the first countries in the world to take this step
  - **1867** — abolished for all civil crimes; Portugal was a European pioneer in this measure
- **Abolition of slavery:**
  - **1761** — the Marquis of Pombal had already prohibited the import of new slaves into mainland Portugal, but slavery continued in the colonies
  - **1869** — slavery definitively abolished in all Portuguese territories, including African colonies
- **Workers' rights:** With industrial development, workers began organising into *associações de classe* and later into **unions** (*sindicatos*) to fight for better working conditions, decent wages and shorter hours. Strikes became a frequent instrument of struggle.

- **Women's rights:** Though advances were very limited, voices for female education began to emerge; compulsory primary schooling was progressively extended to girls.

2.23.9 The Industrial Revolution

Why did it begin in England? - *Political:* parliamentary system defending both noble and bourgeois interests - *Social:* active and entrepreneurial bourgeoisie and nobility; large available workforce - *Economic:* abundance of capital from colonial trade; abundant raw materials (wool and cotton); extensive transport network; vast internal and external market

Launch sectors: Cotton textile industry; metallurgy (iron and coal). **Energy source:** steam (from coal-heated boilers).

Technical advances: steam pump, flying shuttle, spinning machines, steam engine, mechanical loom.

New social class: the proletariat Many workers were women and children, working 15 or 16 hours a day for very low wages. Poor hygiene contributed to widespread diseases such as tuberculosis.

Environmental consequences of industrialisation: - Blackened waterways from soot and coal dust - Over-exploitation of mineral resources and landscape alteration - Pollution of soil, air, rivers and oceans - Noise pollution from machinery

Second Industrial Revolution — new countries: Belgium, France, Germany, United States of America.

Inventions: fertilisers, aluminium, synthetic fibres, aspirin, lightbulb, generator, dynamo, telephone, internal combustion engine, automobiles, aeroplanes; **New energy sources:** electricity and petroleum.

Transport revolution: The railway age: from the mid-19th century, railway construction fever swept Europe and the Americas. The first locomotive was built by Stephenson in 1814; the first passenger line (Liverpool-Manchester) opened in 1821. Improvements to steamships; opening of the Suez and Panama Canals. With faster, cheaper transport, distances shrank, migration increased and intercontinental trade intensified.

2.23.10 Population Movements

Census taking The first rigorous national census was carried out in **1864** — the first *recenseamento*. From 1864 to 1900, the population grew from about 4 million to 5 million inhabitants. This growth was due to improved living conditions: peace and political stability; better nutrition (potatoes and maize); improved hygiene (sewers, piped water, paved streets); better medical care (new medicines, vaccines, hospitals).

Population distribution: Growth was greater in the northern coastal area, with fertile soils, fishing ports and industrial units. Urban populations grew, especially coastal cities — a concentration

trend that would intensify in subsequent decades.

Rural exodus: Despite agricultural development, production remained insufficient. Mechanisation caused layoffs and rural hardship intensified. Many people abandoned the countryside for cities — **êxodo rural**. In cities: rapid unplanned growth, formation of poor, overcrowded neighbourhoods; in the countryside: abandonment of agricultural land, ageing rural population.

Emigration Main destinations: - **Brazil** — the preferred destination (shared language; great labour demand, especially after the abolition of slavery in Brazil in 1888). Estimated 500,000 Portuguese emigrated to Brazil between 1855 and 1900 - **Central America, USA** and other Americas destinations

Returning emigrants who enriched themselves were called ***"brasileiros"*** and had significant impact in northern Portugal, building houses and schools. **Remittances** became an important source of national income — a characteristic that continued throughout the 20th century.

2.23.11 Daily Life in the Countryside

The main rural activities continued to be agriculture, livestock farming and coastal fishing. Most peasants did not own the land they worked — land belonged mainly to the old nobility, bourgeois proprietors and some wealthier farmers. Peasants worked as *jornaleiros* (day labourers), *rendeiros* (tenant farmers) or *caseiros* (resident workers who shared the harvest with the landowner). Work was hard and earnings few; the day began at sunrise and ended at nightfall.

Housing: In the north, granite houses, often with two floors: ground floor for animals and equipment, upper floor for the family. In the south, whitewashed houses of *taipa* or adobe with thick walls against the heat. Interiors were modest: few furnishings, kitchen with fireplace, oil-lamp or candle lighting.

Food: Mainly potatoes, rye or maize bread, vegetable soups and sardines. Meat was consumed only on feast days — the pig, raised in nearly every rural household, was slaughtered once a year (the *matança do porco*) and its meat preserved in salt and smoke.

Clothing: Varied by region and climate. In the interior, men wore long trousers, waistcoats or jackets and boots or wooden *tamancos*; women wore long skirts and colourful headscarves. On the coast, men wore short or rolled-up trousers and generally went barefoot.

Entertainment and social life: Associated mainly with collective agricultural activities (grape harvests, corn huskings, threshings — occasions for songs, games and shared meals); with religion (fairs, *romarias* and religious festivals honouring the local patron saint — the great moments of community celebration); and with fairs and markets.

2.23.12 Daily Life in the Major Cities

The dominant social group was the **bourgeoisie**: merchants, bankers, industrialists, doctors, lawyers, teachers, army officers and civil servants. The people worked mainly as street vendors, shop assistants or servants in wealthy homes. With industrial development, a new social class

emerged: the **proletariat** (working class) — men, women and even children who worked long hours in factories for little pay, with no accident protection and no compensation if dismissed.

Food: The bourgeoisie and nobility ate abundantly and varied — four meals a day (breakfast, lunch, dinner, supper); restaurants appeared, introducing French recipes (pudding, omelette, steak, soufflé). The poorer classes lived mainly on bread, vegetables, lard and sardines.

Clothing: The wealthy dressed according to French fashion — women in floor-length crinolines; men in trousers, shirt, waistcoat, frock coat and hat. The poor wore simple working clothes.

Entertainment: The nobility and bourgeoisie frequented public gardens (music in bandstands), cafés and clubs, dinners, balls, opera, theatre and circus. The people's entertainment was similar to that of the countryside: fairs, religious festivals and Sunday afternoon countryside outings.

2.24 Chapter 8: 20th Century — Republic, Dictatorship and Democracy

The 20th century is a century of profound contrasts. Portugal proclaimed the Republic in 1910, but political instability led to a military coup in 1926. From 1933, Salazar's *Estado Novo* dictatorship imposed an authoritarian regime that lasted until the **Carnation Revolution of 25 April 1974**, which restored democracy. Meanwhile, the world was shaken by two world wars, totalitarianisms, the Cold War, decolonisation and the construction of a united Europe.

2.24.1 The Republican Revolution of 1910 and the Fall of the Monarchy

Formation of the Republican Party Discontent at the end of the 19th century: peasants and workers lived in great hardship while the high bourgeoisie received increasing profits; the king and royal family were accused of wasting money, contributing to the kingdom's indebtedness. The **Republican Party** (1876) wanted to end the Monarchy and establish a Republic — with elected presidents rather than hereditary kings — believing this would modernise the country and improve conditions for the poor.

Scramble for African territories At the **Berlin Conference (1884–1885)**, European powers agreed that territories would be shared according to effective occupation, not discovery. Portugal presented the **Pink Map** (*Mapa Cor-de-Rosa*), attempting to occupy territories connecting Angola to Mozambique. Great Britain, wishing to connect Cape to Cairo, refused to accept this and issued an **ultimatum** demanding that Portugal abandon those territories. The Portuguese government yielded to the ultimatum, greatly worsening popular discontent — many people began supporting the Republican Party in the desire for a strong government.

Republican revolts: - 31 January 1891 — Republican revolt in Porto; unsuccessful but demonstrated the party's growth - **1 February 1908 — Regicide:** King Carlos I was shot while passing

in a carriage through the Terreiro do Paço in Lisbon; the heir to the throne, Prince Luís Filipe, also died; his younger brother, King Manuel II, succeeded - **5 October 1910 — Fall of the Monarchy:** In the night of 4–5 October 1910, republican soldiers and civilians took up arms, concentrating at the Rotunda (now Praça Marquês de Pombal). The royalist troops, though more numerous, could not suppress the revolt, and on the morning of 5 October 1910 the Republic was proclaimed, ending the Monarchy

2.24.2 The First Republic (1910–1926)

The First Republic proved politically unstable, with frequent changes of government and persistent social conflicts. The most important measures included separation of Church and State, civil registration, legalisation of divorce, and freedom of the press. However, economic difficulties, social unrest and World War I (in which Portugal participated from 1916) destabilised the Republic. On **28 May 1926**, a military coup ended the First Republic.

2.24.3 World War I (1914–1918)

Causes: - European alliance system (Triple Alliance: Germany, Austria-Hungary, Italy vs. Triple Entente: France, Russia, Great Britain) - Nationalism and imperialism: competition for colonies and influence - Assassination of Archduke Franz Ferdinand of Austria (28 June 1914) in Sarajevo — the spark that ignited the conflict

Portugal's participation (from 1916): Fear of losing African colonies; allied with Great Britain. Portuguese soldiers fought on the Western Front (France) and in Africa (Mozambique and Angola).

Consequences: About 17 million dead; dissolution of the Austro-Hungarian, Ottoman and Russian empires; creation of new nations; harsh reparations imposed on Germany (**Treaty of Versailles**, 1919), laying the groundwork for future instability.

2.24.4 The Rise of Totalitarianisms

After WWI, economic and political crises in several European countries led to the rise of totalitarian regimes: - **Fascism** (Italy, 1922): Benito Mussolini and the Fascist Party; cult of the leader, militarism, nationalism and anti-communism - **Nazism** (Germany, 1933): Adolf Hitler and the National Socialist Party; extreme nationalism, anti-Semitism, Aryan racial supremacy; persecution and extermination of Jews, Roma, the disabled and political opponents (**Holocaust** — about 6 million Jews murdered) - **Communism** (Soviet Union): After the Russian Revolution of 1917, the Bolsheviks under Lenin established a single-party regime; from 1924, Joseph Stalin imposed totalitarian collectivist rule

2.24.5 The Estado Novo in Portugal

From military dictatorship to Estado Novo (1926–1933) The military coup of 1926 installed a military dictatorship. In 1928, António de Oliveira Salazar was appointed Finance Minister; his

economic competence gave him growing influence. In 1932 he became Prime Minister and in 1933 he established the **Estado Novo** (*New State*) through a new Constitution.

Characteristics of the Estado Novo: - **Authoritarianism:** Salazar concentrated power; political parties (except the ruling National Union) were forbidden - **Censorship:** Press censorship and information control - **Political police (PIDE/DGS):** Secret police that persecuted, imprisoned and tortured opponents - **Nationalism:** Motto *"God, Homeland, Family"*; propaganda exalting Portuguese history and the empire - **Economic corporatism:** State control of economy; protection of domestic industry - **Colonial empire:** Maintenance of African, Asian and Oceanian territories presented as "overseas provinces"

2.24.6 World War II (1939–1945)

Causes: - Nazi Germany's expansionism (annexation of Austria 1938, Czechoslovakia 1938–1939, invasion of Poland 1 September 1939) - Failure of League of Nations and politics of appeasement - Alliance systems: Axis (Germany, Italy, Japan) vs. Allies (France, UK, Soviet Union from 1941, USA from 1941)

Key events: - Fall of France (1940); Battle of Britain (1940–1941) - Operation Barbarossa: German invasion of the Soviet Union (1941) - Japanese attack on Pearl Harbor (December 1941) — USA enters the war - **D-Day** (6 June 1944): Allied landing in Normandy - German surrender (8 May 1945); Japanese surrender (2 September 1945, after atomic bombs on Hiroshima and Nagasaki)

Holocaust: Systematic extermination of about 6 million Jews and millions of others in Nazi concentration and extermination camps.

Portugal: Officially neutral, but leaned towards the Allies; the Azores were strategically important (leased to the British as an air base in 1943); Lisbon served as a major spy and refugee hub.

Consequences: About 70–85 million deaths (the deadliest conflict in human history); creation of the **United Nations** (1945); beginning of the **Cold War** between the USA and the Soviet Union.

2.24.7 The Cold War

After WWII, the world divided into two blocs: - **Western bloc** — led by the **USA**: liberal democracy and capitalism; organised in **NATO** (1949) - **Eastern bloc** — led by the **USSR**: communist single-party regimes; organised in the **Warsaw Pact** (1955)

Key Cold War events: - **Korean War (1950–1953):** North Korea (communist, backed by China and USSR) vs. South Korea (backed by the UN and USA) — ended in armistice, Korea remains divided - **Cuban Missile Crisis (1962):** USSR installed nuclear missiles in Cuba; the world came to the brink of nuclear war; resolved diplomatically - **Vietnam War (1955–1975):** North Vietnam (communist) vs. South Vietnam (backed by the USA); ended with communist victory and reunification - **Space race:** USSR launched Sputnik (1957) and the first astronaut (Yuri Gagarin, 1961); USA landed on the Moon (Apollo 11, 1969) - **Fall of the Berlin Wall (1989)** and **dissolution of the USSR (1991)** marked the end of the Cold War

Portugal and the Cold War: Portugal was a founding member of NATO (1949); as a Cold War ally, Western powers largely overlooked the Estado Novo dictatorship.

2.24.8 The Colonial War (1961–1974)

In the early 1960s, independence movements emerged in Portugal's African colonies (Angola, Guinea-Bissau, Mozambique). Salazar refused to grant independence and chose military confrontation. The colonial war lasted 13 years, costing thousands of lives on both sides and consuming enormous resources. Military frustration with the war was a key factor in the **Carnation Revolution**.

2.24.9 The Carnation Revolution — 25 April 1974

Causes: - Military discontent with the endless colonial war - Economic stagnation and widespread emigration - Opposition to the Salazar/Caetano dictatorship (Salazar was incapacitated by a stroke in 1968 and succeeded by Marcello Caetano) - Influence of democratic ideas from Western Europe

The revolution: On the night of 24–25 April 1974, the **Armed Forces Movement (MFA)** carried out a military coup. The signal was two songs broadcast on the radio, the last being *"Grândola, Vila Morena"* by Zeca Afonso. Soldiers and civilians filled the streets of Lisbon; people placed **carnations** in the soldiers' rifle barrels — giving the revolution its name. The regime fell peacefully, without significant bloodshed.

Consequences: - **End of the dictatorship** and establishment of democracy - Political prisoners freed; censorship abolished; PIDE dissolved - **Decolonisation:** Independence of Angola, Mozambique, Guinea-Bissau, Cape Verde, São Tomé and Príncipe, and East Timor (1974–1975) - **Constitution of 1976** established a democratic state based on rule of law, protection of human rights and separation of powers - **Free elections** — first held in April 1975 (Constituent Assembly elections)

2.24.10 Portugal in Democracy (1974–2000)

Political stabilisation: After an initial turbulent period (1974–1976), Portugal consolidated parliamentary democracy with regular free elections and peaceful transfer of power.

Economic development: - **Entry into the European Economic Community (EEC) in 1986** was transformative: access to European markets and structural funds; significant modernisation of the economy and infrastructure - **Expo 98** in Lisbon: a landmark event that showcased Portugal's modernisation and renewal

Social changes: - Significant improvement in living standards, health care and education - Reduction of regional disparities - Major expansion of the social welfare state

Decolonisation and immigration: Hundreds of thousands of *retornados* (returnees from the former colonies) arrived in Portugal after 1974, transforming Portuguese society. Portugal also began receiving immigrants from its former colonies (especially Cape Verde, Angola, Brazil), becoming for the first time a country of immigration.

2.25 Chapter 9: Contemporary Portugal — Portugal in the 21st Century

Portugal in the 21st century is a democratic and European country, integrated in the main international organisations. It faces challenges related to the economy, demography and the environment while celebrating a rich cultural identity and strong diaspora links.

2.25.1 Portugal in the European Union

Path to European integration: - 1986: Portugal joined the **European Economic Community (EEC)** - 1999: Portugal adopted the **Euro** (common currency), entering the Eurozone - EU membership brought: access to the single market; structural and cohesion funds that financed infrastructure, education and regional development; free movement of people, goods, services and capital; consolidation of democracy and rule of law

Challenges of EU membership: - Need to modernise and increase competitiveness of the Portuguese economy - **Sovereign debt crisis (2010–2014):** Portugal requested a bailout from the EU/IMF/ECB (the "Troika") and implemented painful austerity measures; the economy recovered from 2014 onwards - Debates on the euro, sovereignty and European solidarity

Portugal in the world: - Active member of **NATO** (since 1949) - Member of the **United Nations** (since 1955) - **Community of Portuguese Language Countries (CPLP):** Founded in 1996, grouping Portugal and eight other Portuguese-speaking countries; promotes cooperation in education, culture and development - Portugal maintains strong ties with Brazil, its African former colonies and the large Portuguese diaspora worldwide

2.25.2 Population of Portugal

Demographic trends: - Portugal's population reached approximately 10 million in the early 21st century - **Ageing population:** Low birth rate and increased life expectancy; one of the oldest populations in the EU - **Internal migration:** Continued concentration in coastal areas, especially the Lisbon and Porto metropolitan areas; depopulation of interior regions - **Emigration:** Resumed strongly after the 2008–2014 economic crisis, with many young educated Portuguese emigrating to other EU countries and to Brazil and Angola - **Immigration:** Growing communities from Brazil, the CPLP countries, Eastern Europe (especially Ukraine) and other regions; Portugal has become an increasingly multicultural society

Challenges: - Depopulation of interior regions - Funding sustainability of pensions and social security with an ageing population - Integrating immigrants and promoting social cohesion

2.25.3 Economic Activities

Services sector — the dominant sector of the Portuguese economy: - **Tourism** has grown enormously in the 21st century, with Lisbon, Porto, the Algarve and Madeira among Europe's most popular destinations - Commerce, banking and financial services, public administration, health and education

Industry: - Automotive (Volkswagen Autoeuropa in Palmela), cork (Portugal is the world's largest producer), footwear, textiles and clothing, chemicals and pharmaceuticals - Technology and innovation sectors growing in Lisbon and Porto

Agriculture and fisheries: - Portugal remains an important producer of wine (including Port wine), olive oil, cork, fruits and vegetables - Atlantic fishing (sardines, codfish) remains culturally significant

Energy: - Portugal is a European leader in renewable energy production: wind, solar and hydroelectric power supply a large proportion of national electricity demand

Economic challenges: - Moderate productivity growth - High levels of public and private debt - Need to diversify the economy beyond tourism and low-value-added manufacturing

2.25.4 Transport and Communications

Road network: Portugal has one of the densest motorway networks in Europe, significantly transforming regional connectivity since the 1980s.

Railways: Modernisation of the suburban rail network; ongoing debate about high-speed rail. Major lines: Lisbon-Porto (Alta Velocidade, planned) and connections to Spain.

Airports: Lisbon Humberto Delgado Airport handles over 30 million passengers per year; Porto, Faro and the islands (Madeira, Azores) also have international airports.

Seaports: Major ports at Lisbon, Setúbal, Sines (one of the largest container and energy ports in the Iberian Peninsula), Leixões (Porto) and Aveiro.

Telecommunications and internet: Portugal has high mobile network coverage and a growing fibre optic network; digital transformation is a government priority.

2.25.5 Leisure, Culture and Society

Culture and identity: - **Fado** — Lisbon's soul music, UNESCO Intangible Cultural Heritage since 2011; a profound expression of *saudade* - **Football** — deeply embedded in Portuguese culture; Benfica, Sporting CP and Porto are internationally known; Cristiano Ronaldo is the most celebrated Portuguese sportsperson of the modern era - Rich literary tradition: Fernando Pessoa (1888–1935) is the most internationally recognised Portuguese writer; José Saramago won the Nobel Prize in Literature (1998) - Rich tradition of **azulejo** (decorative tile), Baroque architecture and Manueline heritage

Education and science: - Universal access to education through university level; significant improvement in educational attainment over the last 40 years - Portuguese universities (Lisbon, Porto, Coimbra, Nova) have growing international profiles - Investment in science and technology, with innovation clusters in Lisbon and Porto

Social values: - Portugal consistently ranks among the world's most peaceful countries (Global Peace Index) - Strong tradition of hospitality (*hospitalidade*) and intercultural openness - Growing attention to environmental issues, gender equality and LGBTQ+ rights

Challenges: - Social inequalities persist, particularly affecting rural areas and recent immigrants - Housing affordability crisis in Lisbon and Porto driven partly by tourism - Ongoing need to balance cultural heritage preservation with modernisation

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Chapter 3

PART II — GEOGRAPHY

3.1 Introduction to the Geography of Portugal

Geography studies the Earth's surface, the distribution of human and natural phenomena, and the relationships between people and their environments. The Geography curriculum (Part II) explores Portugal's natural features, population, economic activities, environment and global position.

3.2 Chapter G1: Physical Geography of Portugal

3.2.1 Location and Borders

Continental Portugal occupies the western part of the Iberian Peninsula, bordered to the north and east by Spain and to the west and south by the Atlantic Ocean. It is the westernmost country of continental Europe.

Insular Portugal includes two autonomous regions: - **Madeira archipelago** — located in the North Atlantic, off the northwest coast of Africa - **Azores archipelago** — located in the mid-North Atlantic, on the Mid-Atlantic Ridge; the westernmost territory of Europe

Coordinates: Continental Portugal lies approximately between 37°N and 42°N latitude and 6°W and 9°W longitude.

3.2.2 Relief

Main relief units:

Relief Unit	Location	Main features
Serra da Estrela	Central-north interior	Highest point of continental Portugal: Torre (1,993 m)

Relief Unit	Location	Main features
Planalto Transmontano	Northeast	High plateaux (*planaltos*) above 600 m
Peneda-Gerês	Northwest	Granite mountains; National Park
Baixo Alentejo	South	Extensive low plains (*planícies*)
Algarve	South	Coastal cliffs and sandy beaches

General features of Portuguese relief: - The **north and interior** are generally higher and more rugged - The **south and coastal areas** are lower and more level - The main rivers flow generally west or southwest towards the Atlantic

3.2.3 Rivers

Main rivers of Portugal:

River	Origin	Flows to	Notes
Tagus (Tejo)	Spain	Atlantic (Lisbon estuary)	Longest river on the Iberian Peninsula (1,007 km); navigable section near Lisbon
Douro	Spain	Atlantic (Porto)	Important for wine production (Douro Valley — Port wine); deep canyon landscape
Minho	Spain/Galicia	Atlantic	Northern border with Spain
Guadiana	Spain	Atlantic (Alentejo/Algarve border)	Forms part of the southern border with Spain
Mondego	Serra da Estrela	Atlantic (Figueira da Foz)	Entirely within Portugal; important for agriculture (Mondego plain)
Sado	Alentejo	Atlantic (Setúbal)	Important wetland/estuary ecosystem

3.2.4 Climate

Portugal has a **Mediterranean climate** as its dominant type, modified by **Atlantic influence** (especially in the north and west).

Main climate types:

Climate type	Region	Characteristics
Maritime Mediterranean	North and centre coast	Mild, wet winters; warm, dry summers
Continental Mediterranean	Interior northeast (Trás-os-Montes)	Hot, dry summers; cold winters with frost and snow
Atlantic Mediterranean	Northwest (Minho)	High rainfall year-round; mild temperatures
Arid Mediterranean	South interior (Alentejo, eastern Algarve)	Very hot, dry summers; mild winters
Mountain	Serra da Estrela, Peneda-Gerês	Lower temperatures; higher precipitation; snow in winter
Island climates	Madeira and Azores	Mild year-round; Azores very rainy; Madeira varied by altitude

Temperature: - Average summer temperatures range from about 20°C (north) to 26°C+ (south interior) - Average winter temperatures range from about 5°C (interior north) to 13°C (south coast)

Precipitation: - Annual precipitation ranges from over 2,500 mm in the northwest (Peneda-Gerês) to under 500 mm in the south interior (Alentejo) - Rain falls mainly in autumn and winter; summers are dry, especially in the south

3.2.5 Natural Vegetation

Portugal's natural vegetation reflects the climate, soil and altitude:

- **North:** Atlantic oak forests (*carvalhal*), chestnut (*souto*), pine forests
- **Centre:** Mixed forests; cork oak (*montado* or *sobreiro*) and holm oak (*azinheira*)
- **South (Alentejo/Algarve):** Cork oak and holm oak *montado*; Mediterranean scrubland (*maquis* — *mato*)
- **Mountain areas:** Heathland, broom, and in Serra da Estrela: high-altitude grasslands (*pastagens de altitude*)
- **Madeira:** Dense laurel forest (*Laurisilva*) — a UNESCO World Heritage Site; one of the best-preserved relict forests in the world
- **Azores:** Subtropical vegetation with tree heaths and endemic species

3.2.6 Soils

- Most productive soils: alluvial plains (river valleys of Tagus, Douro, Mondego and Sado)
- Less productive: schist soils of interior north; granite soils
- *Montado*: traditional agro-silvo-pastoral system combining cork oak with extensive grazing and cereal cultivation; ecologically diverse and economically important

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3.3 Chapter G2: Population and Urbanisation

3.3.1 Population Distribution

Portugal's population is unequally distributed:

- **High density:** coastal areas — especially the **Lisbon Metropolitan Area** (~2.8 million) and the **Porto Metropolitan Area** (~1.7 million); coastal municipalities between Braga and Setúbal concentrate most of the population
- **Low density:** interior regions — Trás-os-Montes, Beira Interior, Alentejo interior; these areas have been losing population for decades
- **Islands:** Azores (~250,000) and Madeira (~260,000)

Causes of unequal distribution: - Economic opportunities concentrated in coastal areas and major cities - Better transport, education and healthcare infrastructure on the coast - Historical agricultural productivity of river valleys and coastal plains

3.3.2 Demographic Indicators

Indicator	Value (approx.)
Total population	~10 million
Birth rate	Very low (one of lowest in Europe: ~7–8‰)
Death rate	Increasing with ageing population
Natural growth	Near zero or slightly negative
Life expectancy	~81–83 years (among highest in EU)
Ageing index	High — Portugal has one of the oldest populations in Europe
Fertility rate	~1.4 children per woman (well below replacement level of 2.1)

3.3.3 Urbanisation

Portugal is a highly urbanised country: - Over 65% of the population lives in urban areas - The two main urban agglomerations — **Lisbon** and **Porto** — together account for nearly 40% of the national population - **Causes of urbanisation:** Rural exodus; availability of employment, education and

services in cities; economic development - **Consequences of urban growth:** Traffic congestion; housing shortages and rising prices; environmental pressure; suburbanisation

Major urban centres: - **Lisbon** (capital): ~550,000 in the city; ~2.8 million in the metropolitan area - **Porto**: ~220,000 in the city; ~1.7 million in the metropolitan area - **Other important cities:** Braga, Coimbra, Setúbal, Aveiro, Viseu, Évora, Faro

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3.4 Chapter G3: Economic Activities

3.4.1 Primary Sector

Agriculture: Portugal's agriculture has undergone significant modernisation, particularly since EU entry: - **Main crops:** Wheat, maize, sunflower, tomato, potatoes, grapes (vineyards), olives, citrus fruits (Algarve) - **Wine production:** One of the world's leading wine producers; wine regions include the Douro Valley (Port wine), Alentejo, Vinho Verde (Minho) and Madeira - **Olive oil:** Portugal is one of the EU's largest producers; Alentejo and Trás-os-Montes are leading regions - **Cork:** Portugal produces about half the world's cork; major economic and ecological importance - **Challenges:** Small farm size (minifundia in the north); low mechanisation in some regions; climate change (water stress, fires)

Fishing: - Portugal has one of the world's highest per capita fish consumption rates - Main fishing species: sardine, mackerel, octopus, hake and the iconic **codfish** (*bacalhau*) - Main fishing ports: Matosinhos, Peniche, Aveiro, Setúbal, Portimão - **Aquaculture** is a growing sector

Livestock farming: - Cattle (dairy and beef): mainly in the north (Minho, Trás-os-Montes) - Pigs: widespread; black Iberian pig (*porco preto*) of the Alentejo is especially prized - Sheep and goats: interior regions

Forestry: - Portugal has one of the highest proportions of forested land in the EU (~35% of territory) - Main forest species: eucalyptus (pulp and paper), maritime pine (*pinheiro bravo*), cork oak - **Major concern:** Forest fires — Portugal has suffered catastrophic fires, especially the deadly fires of 2017

3.4.2 Secondary Sector (Industry)

Main industries: - **Automotive:** Volkswagen Autoeuropa (Palmela) is a major employer and exporter - **Textiles and clothing:** Historically important; still significant in northern Portugal (Braga, Guimarães) - **Footwear:** Portugal is a major exporter of quality leather footwear - **Food and beverages:** Wine, olive oil, canned fish, dairy - **Cork products:** Wine stoppers, flooring, insulation - **Chemicals and pharmaceuticals** - **Technology and software:** Growing sector in Lisbon and Porto (Web Summit annual conference in Lisbon is the world's largest technology conference)

Industrial geography: - Most industry is concentrated in the **coastal strip**, especially the axes Porto–Braga (north) and Lisbon–Setúbal (south) - The interior remains predominantly agricultural

3.4.3 Tertiary Sector (Services)

The services sector employs the majority of the Portuguese workforce and contributes the most to GDP.

Tourism — key economic driver: - Portugal has become one of Europe's top tourist destinations, receiving over 25 million foreign visitors per year (pre-pandemic) - Key attractions: climate and beaches (Algarve); historic city centres (Lisbon, Porto, Sintra, Évora — several UNESCO sites); wine tourism (Douro Valley); island tourism (Madeira, Azores); gastronomy and *fado* - **Challenges:** Over-tourism in Lisbon and Porto; impact on housing prices and local communities; seasonality

Commerce and trade: - Portugal is integrated into the EU single market - Main exports: machinery and transport equipment, foodstuffs (wine, olive oil, fish), textiles and clothing, cork products, refined petroleum products - Main imports: machinery and equipment, vehicles, chemicals, foodstuffs, crude petroleum - Main trading partners: Spain, Germany, France, UK, USA

Financial services: Lisbon is Portugal's financial centre; major Portuguese banks include CGD (state-owned), BCP and BPI.

3.5 Chapter G4: Environment and Sustainability

3.5.1 Environmental Challenges

Forest fires: Portugal is particularly vulnerable to forest fires due to: - Hot, dry summers - Large areas of highly flammable eucalyptus and maritime pine - Rural depopulation leaving unmanaged forest - The October 2017 fires killed over 100 people — a national tragedy that prompted significant policy change

Water resources: - Water stress is increasing, especially in the Alentejo and Algarve, due to climate change (reduced precipitation and increased evaporation) - The main dams (Alqueva — the largest in the Iberian Peninsula — and others) are critical for irrigation, electricity and water supply - Transboundary rivers (Tagus, Douro, Guadiana) are shared with Spain — international cooperation is essential

Coastal erosion: - Portugal's long Atlantic coastline is vulnerable to erosion, especially in areas of soft cliffs (Algarve) and sandy beaches - Sea level rise associated with climate change is an increasing concern

Biodiversity: - Portugal is rich in biodiversity: many endemic species, particularly in Madeira and the Azores - Threats: habitat loss, forest fires, invasive species (eucalyptus, acacia), pollution

Pollution: - Air quality has generally improved; urban traffic remains a challenge - Water quality in rivers has improved significantly since EU entry; agricultural run-off remains a concern

3.5.2 Environmental Responses

Renewable energy: Portugal is a European and world leader in renewable energy: - Hydroelectric power (major dams on the Douro, Tagus and Guadiana) - Wind energy (onshore and offshore) - Solar energy (large solar farms in Alentejo) - In recent years Portugal has achieved periods of 100% renewable electricity supply

Environmental legislation and protected areas: - Portugal has a network of **National Parks** (Peneda-Gerês — the only national park), **Nature Parks** and protected areas (covering about 22% of the territory) - Natura 2000 sites protect habitats and species across the EU - National plans to reduce plastic use, improve water management and combat forest fires

Sustainable development agenda: Portugal has committed to achieving carbon neutrality before 2050, transitioning to a clean energy economy, restoring forests and wetlands, and sustainable tourism development.

3.6 Chapter G5: Portugal in the World

3.6.1 Portugal and Globalisation

Globalisation — the increasing interconnection of economies, cultures and peoples — has profoundly shaped 21st-century Portugal:

Economic globalisation: - Portugal is integrated into the EU single market (the world's largest single trading bloc) - Portuguese companies operate internationally; multinationals invest in Portugal - Tourism brings global connections: in 2019, Portugal received visitors from virtually every country in the world

Cultural globalisation: - Portuguese culture has spread worldwide through the diaspora (over 5 million Portuguese citizens live abroad, plus large communities of ethnic Portuguese in Brazil, the USA, France, Switzerland and Luxembourg) - The **Portuguese language** is one of the world's top 5 most spoken languages, with over 260 million native speakers; it is the official language of 9 countries and spoken in 5 continents - **Fado, football and food** are globally recognised cultural exports

Digital globalisation: - Portugal participates in the global digital economy: Lisbon hosts the annual **Web Summit**, the world's largest technology conference - Portuguese start-ups and tech companies have grown rapidly - Digitalisation of public services is a government priority

3.6.2 Portugal and the Portuguese-Speaking World (CPLP)

The **Community of Portuguese Language Countries** (CPLP), founded in 1996, comprises: Portugal, Brazil, Angola, Mozambique, Cape Verde, Guinea-Bissau, São Tomé and Príncipe, East Timor and Equatorial Guinea.

This community promotes: - Cultural and educational cooperation - Economic development - Political dialogue and support for democracy and human rights - Support for the Portuguese language as a language of international communication

Portugal's relationships with former colonies have evolved from colonial domination to (ideally) equal partnership, though historical memory and inequalities of development continue to shape these relationships.

3.6.3 Portugal's Position in International Organisations

Organisation	Portugal's role/status
European Union	Member since 1986; Eurozone since 1999
NATO	Founding member (1949)
United Nations	Member since 1955; has served on the Security Council
CPLP	Founding member; hosting secretariat in Lisbon
OECD	Member since 1961
Schengen Area	Member since 1995 — free movement of people

3.6.4 Emerging Powers and the Changing World Order

The world in the 21st century is increasingly **multipolar**: - **BRICS countries** (Brazil, Russia, India, China, South Africa) have grown in economic and political influence - China has become the world's second-largest economy and a major trading partner for Portugal and the EU - The USA remains the largest economy and the dominant military power but faces geopolitical challenges

Implications for Portugal: - Diversification of trade and investment partnerships - Growing importance of the Portuguese-speaking world (especially Brazil and Africa) as economic partners - The need to balance EU/transatlantic commitments with opportunities in emerging markets

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End of History and Geography Manual